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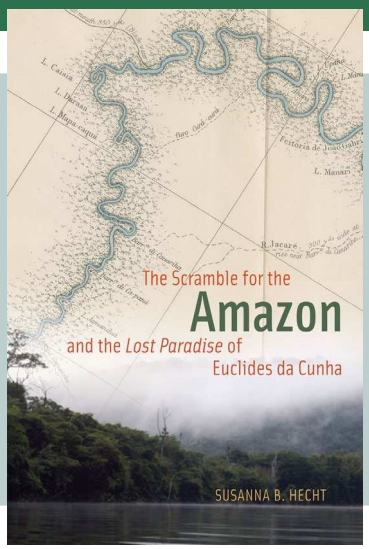
SUMMER, 2014



Susanna B. Hecht's

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Aaron Shapiro's

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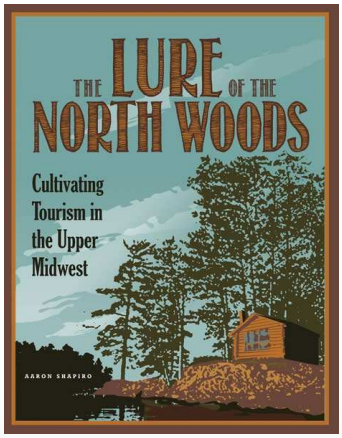

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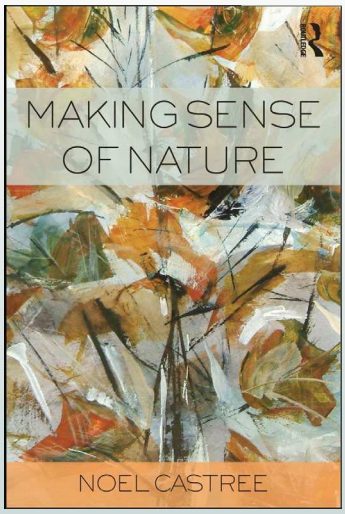

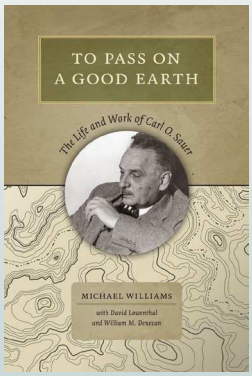

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Michael Williams,
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To Pass on a Good Earth: The Life and Work of Carl O. Sauer

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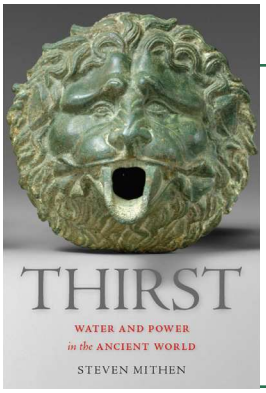

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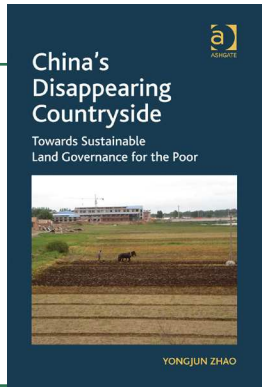
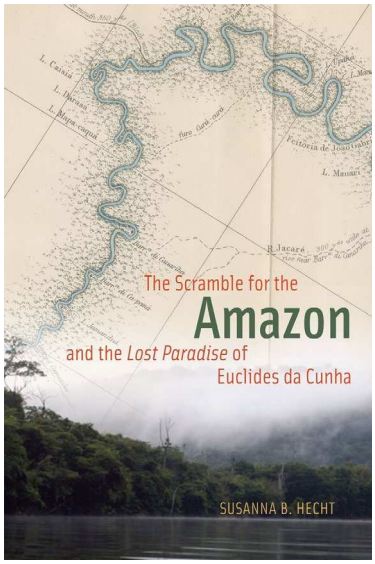


The Scramble for the Amazon and the *Lost Paradise* of Euclides da Cunha

Susanna B. Hecht. Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press, 2013. xvi and 612 pp., maps, photographs, bibliography, index. $45.00 cloth (ISBN: 978-0-226-32281-0); $7.00–$36.00 electronic (ISBN: 978-0-226-32283-4).

Reviewed by Christian Brannstrom, Department of Geography, Texas A&M University, College Station, TX.



Susanna B. Hecht's *Scramble for the Amazon* is a fascinating synthesis of late nineteenth- and early twentieth-century Brazilian historical geography, especially its western Amazon region, narrated beautifully through the life and writings of Euclides da Cunha. Da Cunha was an engineer whose 1902 book *Os Sertões* on the Canudos rebellion had a lasting influence in Brazilian literature and in the production of the sertão as a geographical archetype. *Os Sertões*, translated by Putnam as *Rebellion in the Backlands* (1944), put him in position to play an important role in helping Brazil extend its western Amazonian border at the expense of Peru's Amazonian claims. For Hecht, who recently received the Carl O. Sauer award from the Conference of Latin Americanist Geographers for her publications, *Scramble* is both a prelude and a sequel to her coauthored classic *Fate of the Forest* (Hecht and Cockburn 1989).

Scramble for the Amazon moves within and beyond the biographical frame of Euclides da Cunha. As a biographer—this is the first scholarly treatment of da Cunha in English—Hecht makes readers care about this flawed, tragic, and brilliant person. *Scramble* is also part literary criticism, with extensive reliance on texts da Cunha produced, many of which Hecht herself elegantly translated from Portuguese to English with careful attention to the geographical context in which they were written. In establishing this context, Hecht crafts the book's third contribution, a synthesis of the processes through which Brazil expanded its territory in the western Amazon. These processes include geopolitical stratagem, production of geographical knowledge, and dynamics of latex production systems involving *Castilla* and *Hevea* genera.

Her argument is that the two major works of Euclides da Cunha, *Os Sertões* and his Amazonian essays (intended as a book to be titled *Lost Paradise*) were intimately linked. Yet, the fame of *Os Sertões* eclipsed his Amazonian work. To understand this relationship, Hecht draws comparisons to the epic Greek poems attributed to Homer: *Os Sertões* was about the brutal end to a rebellion, in the way that *Iliad* was about the battle of Troy. Whereas his contemporaries saw Canudos as a restorationist struggle, da Cunha, embedded in the military as a reporter, was horrified at the Brazilian military's siege and assault of Canudos. He abandoned his original view that the backlanders (*sertanejos*) were barbaric. At the end of *Os Sertões*, he characterized the *sertanejos* as "the bedrock of our race" (p. 77) and, in the same sentence, as "the very core of our nationality" (Putnam's translation, p. 464). He also described Canudos, the population of which had increased to 25,000 by the time the rebellion began, as a "mud-walled Troy" (p. 51). Da Cunha's *Odyssey* (Odysseus returning to Ithaca after the fall of Troy) came a few years later, after he left a boring day job as sanitary engineer to become an Amazonian explorer during the period in which Brazil's remarkable diplomat, the Baron of Rio Branco, was crafting an expanded Brazilian territory in the far western Amazon. *Lost Paradise*, written during the

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"Scramble of Amazon" period (1904–1909), was intended to be "nationalist/imperialist narrative to justify Brazil's claims in the Upper Amazon" (p. 13).

Interpreting Euclides da Cunha in this way helps accomplish Hecht's key objective: that the way in which da Cunha viewed the settlement of the western Amazon was a continuation of how he interpreted the *sertanejos* in Canudos who had resisted the barbarism of the Brazilian army, becoming "defenders of the nation" (p. 62). The archetypical *sertanejo* had fled the epic 1877–1878 drought in Brazil's semiarid northeast, migrating to the western Amazon to become a rubber tapper (*seringueiro*). There, *sertanejos* suffered horrid labor relations as they extracted latex, supplying increasing world demand, while also establishing trails and settlements that da Cunha would use to help establish Brazil's territorial claims to the western Amazon.

Hecht begins *Scramble* by establishing the context for Euclides da Cunha's intellectual development. Late-nineteenth-century Brazil was a slaveholding monarchy, with an increasingly powerful military. Da Cunha was trained as engineer in a military school that was "one of the most socially complex, racially diverse, intellectually demanding, and antimonarchist institutions in Brazil" (p. 46) around the time a military coup d'etat overthrew the monarchy and declared republican government. The Canudos rebellion forms the next focus for Hecht, who switches from biographical narrative mode to historical political ecology in analyzing the origin of the rebellion in terms of drought and the cattle economy of interior northeastern Brazil.

Hecht's next task is to establish the geopolitical and political ecological context for da Cunha's Amazonian period. She begins by describing the "scramble for Amazon" as a "slow motion" version of the scramble for Africa (p. 83). The Baron of Rio Branco, da Cunha's future employer, had observed this process firsthand, and learned that cultural phenomena helped establish precedent, which could lead to lasting territorial claims. Rio Branco believed that vague original treaties were no match for occupation and pragmatic historical scholarship; in Hecht's phrasing, "warm bodies rather than rigid arguments" produce sovereignty (p. 100). This geopolitical context includes syntheses of geopolitical conflict between Bolivia and Brazil, which led to the 1903 Treaty of Petrópolis that gave control over Acre to Brazil, but left the conflict over the Purús region, between Brazil and Peru, unresolved. The Purús, da Cunha's "litigious zone" (p. 181), was a region of conflict between Peruvian caucheros and Brazilian seringueiros.

Da Cunha wrote about the conflict with Peru in 1904 and got a meeting with Rio Branco, who in 1905 sent him to the Amazon as head of the Brazilian delegation to the binational commission for the Reconnaissance of the Upper Purús. Hecht follows da Cunha up the Amazon, focusing on how he developed his *Lost Paradise* book idea. Here, Hecht focuses on ecological and social systems sustaining *Hevea* and *Castilla* latex production, the location and description of settlements and rubber trails, and the minutiae of the workings of the binational committee. Key in her analysis is discussion of the letters that da Cunha wrote to Rio Branco and his interpretations of historical settlement of the Purús in favor of Brazil. Crucially, he argued that the *sertanejos*—originally from northeastern Brazil—were the ones "who truly discovered Amazonia" (p. 405).

As an example of how da Cunha combined cultural interpretation with geopolitical stratagem, Hecht provides long translated portions of his "tropicalist ethnography" (pp. 421–50) in which he compared Peruvian caucheros and Brazilian *seringueiros*. *Caucheros* felled *Castilla* to extract latex. Da Cunha's description of these people and their communities was wrapped in language of Black Legend, whereas the *seringueiros*, descendants of *sertanejos*, sustainably tapped *Hevea* and represented da Cunha's desired values for the new Brazilian republic.

Da Cunha the ethnographer is followed by a dramatic turn in the narrative, as Hecht moves back into biographical writing. Da Cunha's personal life would rival any primetime soap opera on Brazilian television. We learn, almost day-by-day, how da Cunha's family life deteriorated. He had known for years that his wife, Ana, was having an affair with a cadet, Dilermando de Assis, who was two decades her junior. The affair had produced two children raised alongside Euclides and Ana's other children in an increasingly dysfunctional household. In Hecht's reading, Ana made the affair too public in 1909, while da Cunha's mental and physical health deteriorated. Da Cunha, armed with a revolver, confronted Dilermando. Dilermando, a national-quality marksman, killed da Cunha after himself being wounded. As Hecht writes, "his health ruined, his family ravaged, his best professional days behind him, [Euclides] had little to preserve but his honor" (p. 464).

After he was absolved, Dilermando married Ana and they had more children. But the "overtly sexualized oedipal situation" (p. 471) involving Ana and her teenage boys, barely younger than Dilermando, created huge stresses. Seven years after Dilermando shot and killed da Cunha, Euclides Jr. (a legitimate son of the elder da Cunha)

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attacked him but suffered the same fate as his father had. Dilermando was indeed a good shot. Eventually he left Ana and rose to the rank of general, playing a key role in a 1930 military coup d'etat.

Scramble is strong regarding Euclides da Cunha's influence on Brazil's geostrategy as pursued by Rio Branco, and on influences shaping da Cunha, but could do more with the influences that Euclides had on Brazilian ideas regarding nature and people, especially how eugenics and environmental determinism developed among early twentieth-century intellectuals, engineers, and political elites. Also, Hecht provides little critique of previous interpretations of da Cunha's work and influences, so it is difficult to gauge how her arguments differ from those of Brazilian scholars. Studies regarding the Peruvian responses to Rio Branco's stratagem and da Cunha's writings likely will produce a different reading of border disputes in the western Amazon. Finally, Hecht's reflection on the art of translation (pp. 485–89) might have come earlier in the book so that readers could better appreciate her approach to da Cunha's text, which was informed by her many years of Amazonian field work.

Scramble for the Amazon shows us how and why geographers should aspire to combine interests in biography, environment, and statecraft into book-length studies. Hecht's book merits comparison to other biographical studies of prominent geographers by geographers such as Lowenthal's (2000) *George Perkins Marsh: Prophet of Conservation* and Smith's (2003) study of Isaiah Bowman. Whereas Smith distanced himself from biography, Hecht embraces biography as a means to understand and explain da Cunha, his texts, and his spatial and temporal contexts. She does not suggest this, but *Scramble* should encourage more historical geographers and political ecologists to approach big topics through biographies. A "biographical turn" is already present in historical geography, particularly in the United Kingdom, where it is motivated partly by work in geographies of science and by concerns for affect and emotion among some cultural geographers. Not all geographers will find such dramatic material as that provided by the life of da Cunha, but we can draw inspiration from the way Susanna Hecht bridges an intimate biography with care for da Cunha's literary production and his role in statecraft, while connecting these narratives to the lands and people that motivated Cunha to literary heights.

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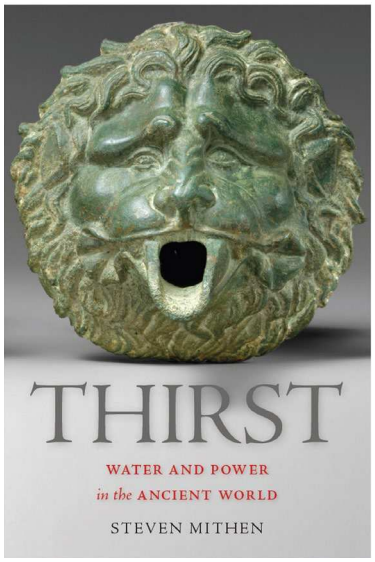
Thirst: Water and Power in the Ancient World

Steven Mithen. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2012. xvii and 347 pp., maps, diagrams, color illustrations, notes, bibliography, index. $25.95 cloth (ISBN 978-0-674-06693).

Reviewed by Arthur Krim, Historic Preservation Program, Boston Architectural College, Boston, MA.



A comprehensive survey of prehistoric and historic hydrology among early civilizations is the lofty goal set forth in *Thirst* by Steven Mithen, a British archaeologist at the University of Reading in England. A complete global survey of ancient water systems would have been the ideal goal, but Mithen does achieve a useful encyclopedia of key examples from the Early Neolithic period to classic American civilizations in a continuous narrative, well illustrated by specific site maps and color photographs that bring the ancient water systems to life.

In what is primarily a study in urban civilizations, Mithen presents ten chapters of examples to explore the latest scholarly understandings of dating, and detailed engineering of the early prehistoric and historic societies. The examples include Neolithic settlements in the Levant; the Mesopotamian cities of the Sumerian culture; a trilogy of Minoan, Mycenaean, and Greek achievements; the desert city of Petra and the Nabataeans; the aqueducts of Rome and Constantinople; the canals of ancient China; the water reservoirs of Angkor Wat in Cambodia;the irrigation system of Hohokam on the Salt River of Arizona; the hydrology of the Mayan city states; and the Inca civilization as seen at Machu Picchu. Mithen gives substance to the archaeological reports by his direct field work at the various global sites, but has edited his work from examples in Africa, including the Nile civilization of Egypt and the Niger cultures of West Africa. Even with these exceptions, *Thirst* provides a wide spectrum of examples in ancient water management, both the successes and the failures.

It is surprising how belated the first evidence of hydrologic engineering is first documented in the Levant at sites in Israel, Palestine, and Jordan. Although evidence of permanent proto-urban settlement can be found as early as 14,500 BP at Ain Mahalla on Lake Tiberias (Sea of Galilee) with a village of round huts, there is no trace of engineered water flow for the village. Similarly, other Near Eastern sites of the Early Neolithic period also lack any purposeful water management systems. The conclusion offered by Mithen appears to support evidence that none of these proto-urban villages, based on the collection of wild grains and hunting of mountain animals, had any system of hydrology. The earliest engineered example has been found on the Jordan–Saudi Arabian border at the Jafa Basin where a stone flood dam was built across the wadi for flood control and a catchment basin for the nearby village at ca. 7500 BC. From this point forward, examples of hydrologic engineering appear more frequently around the Levant, including the first documented agricultural terraced field system above the Dead Sea. By 3600 BC, fully developed water storage basins, water wells, and irrigation channels could be found at the Jawa site in Jordan. These examples were all located in a dry desert environment where winter floods were the only source of available water.

With the prehistoric precedent of the Neolithic, the development of large-scale irrigation systems in Mesopotamia (Iraq) is discussed as a fully realized urban civilization.

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This is prefaced by the theoretical work of Karl Wittfogel and his seminal work on *Oriental Despotism* (1957), published just as evidence for carbon dating was adopted by archaeologists in the Near East. Mithen does not openly dispute Wittfogel's thesis that a central power elite was needed to engineer the vast irrigated systems of the Tigris and Euphrates Rivers in a dry desert environment, but does place an earlier chronology to the origins of the first Sumerian culture before 3600 BC. The true focus of Mithen's interest is the question of salt leaching of the irrigated canals, a problem long debated among archaeologist and historians. Mithen supports the evidence from Sumerian texts and site excavation that, indeed, the irrigated fields were eventually contaminated by leached salts in the dry desert environment.

A parallel to the Sumerian civilization can be found in the irrigated engineering of the Hohokam culture along the Salt River in what is now Phoenix, Arizona. At its height between 50 AD and 1350 AD, the Hohokam achieved a remarkable sophistication of hydrology using sluice gates to divert water from the Salt River to irrigation canals for growing corn and beans, an agriculture derived from the Meso-American cultures further south. The problem of maintaining this engineering was threatened both by salt leaching in drought years, and more important, by sudden floods from the mountains in wet years, the latter dealt a crushing blow about 1382 AD according to local tree ring analysis. Mithen explores the implications of an engineered system without the obvious evidence of a central elite, although in the later stages a fortified "Big House" was constructed on the Gila River at Casa Grande, south of present-day Phoenix.

A more spectacular example of desert hydrology can be found at the famous city site of Petra in modern Jordan, built by the Nabataeana from the fourth century BC to 363 AD when a major earthquake disrupted the intricate engineering. The settlement of Petra was set at the base of Wadi Musa, where springs provided the sole source of permanent water. Over time, the Nabataeans built a sophisticated series of storage cisterns and underground canals to capture the spring floods, creating an elaborate desert city in the Negev built from the prosperity of the spice trade from Yemen to Egypt.

In comparison to Petra, Mithen offers examples from classical Mediterranean dry climate cultures, including the Minoans, Greeks, and Romans. All had to cope with limited annual water supply, earthquakes, and floods to maintain their urban water systems. The earliest was the island civilization on Crete of the Minoans centered on their capital city at Knossos founded about 1800 BC. Water was provided by storage cisterns cut into rock to tap the spring floods from the nearby hills. This included cut stone conduits to the palace at Knossos. On the mainland of Greece, the Mycenaean culture of 1200 BC developed sophisticated diversion canals to protect the city of Tiryus from flash floods, and on the Greek island of Samos an aqueduct tunnel was dug 1,000 meters under a major mountain to supply the city of Samos in the sixth century BC. Such refined Mediterranean engineering provided the working knowledge for the masterworks of Roman construction in the Classical period.

The case of classic Roman engineering is discussed from the perspective of the long-distance aqueducts that fed the imperial palaces of central Rome. Contrary to general belief, these arched wonders were constructed in the later period, beginning from the eastern suburbs with the Aqua Maria built in 144 BC, the first to use the arched engineering that became the model for the later construction. Curiously these were financed by war booty and were used to feed the Imperial baths and fountains as displayed in a useful locational map of metropolitan Rome. After the fall of Imperial Rome in 537 AD, the central government shifted to Constantinople where a limited water supply required the construction of an impressive long-distance aqueduct built some 550 kilometers west of the city from the village of Vize, again to supply water for the royal baths and fountains of the central city.

In comparison to Imperial Rome, the evidence from dynastic China is based largely on earthen channel hydrology in the well-watered plains of the Yangtze and Yellow Rivers. Until recently, archaeological work in China has been limited, and Neolithic irrigation canals were likely part of the first village settlements, possibly dating to 7000 BC. The best documented site is on the Chengdu Plain of the Yangtze, where diversion canals were built in 270 BC under the direction of Li Bing for the emperor Qin to regulate the spring floods from the mountains. Likewise, the great long-distance transport canal connecting the dynastic capital at Louyang with the Yangtze was built under the direction of the emperor in the seventh century AD and was extended as the Grand Canal to the new Mongol capital at Beijing in the thirteenth century. Beyond these royal projects, much of the hydrologic engineering of the ancient Chinese done by local farmers has been lost to history.

In the tropical lowlands of both Asia and the Americas, two iconic civilizations are examined, the Cambodian complex at Angkor Wat, and the Mayan cities of the Yucatán in Mexico and Guatemala. Both suffered from a scarcity of surface water, but each civilization solved the

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problem uniquely. In Angkor Wat, the Hindu capital of the lower Mekong basin, the emperors built a temple city complex between 800 AD and 1325 AD, constructing large reservoirs or "barays" on each side of the city fed by canals that diverted mountain streams from the north into the lowlands. The barays served not only as storage reserves from the monsoons for the dry season, but also symbolic mirrors, reflecting the quiet faith of the Hindu culture.

In contrast, the Maya civilization of Mexico was built on a karst limestone topography where surface water was lost below ground in sinkholes or "cenotes" and underground rivers that the Maya viewed as the underworld. Although some short-distance canals were constructed to the major cities, the Maya relied heavily on storage cisterns in the cenotes from the fall hurricanes to endure the dry seasons. As he is with the Hohokam and the Sumerian civilizations, Mithen is fascinated with the collapse of the Mayan culture. Recent archaeology involving lake sediments and tree ring analysis has confirmed that severe droughts devastated the Yucatán during the Classic period at the end of the ninth century AD, causing the abandonment of leading cities like Tikal. By the time the Spanish arrived in the sixteenth century, the Mayan population had returned to less intensive agricultural practice, retaining their culture through to the present.

The final case study examined by Mithen is the Inca civilization of Peru, highlighted by the hidden city of Machu Picchu in the mountains north of Cusco. Built in the fifteenth century as a royal resort, Machu Picchu employed a sophisticated system of terraced fields underlaid by a complex network of cut stone conduits that stabilized the terraces and allowed for field agriculture on the steepest slopes. This hydrology had been developed over the millennia since 4500 BC at early sites along the coastal desert of Peru where abundant fishing was combined with irrigated agriculture from the mountain streams. A sequence of coastal cultures evolved over the centuries, eventually moving into the highland valleys around Cusco. In the case of the Inca, the collapse was not based on environmental factors, but rather military defeat by the Spanish with their horses and gunpowder in the early sixteenth century. Unlike the Maya, elements of the local native population have continued to use the ancient terraced fields and irrigation canals through to the present.

In summary, *Thirst* offers a comprehensive history of water systems of the ancient world with a variety of examples ranging from the initial efforts of the Neolithic cultures of the Near East to the Classic civilizations of Rome and the Inca. Mithen writes in a serious scholarly style from the latest archaeological research in notes and bibliographic reference, although often slipping into tourist descriptions from his personal site visits. He illustrates the text with portfolios of color photographs taken in an amateur style, unfortunately unnumbered from references in the text. He also uses a variety of regional maps that suffer from miniaturization, and several detailed diagrams of local site hydrology, while missing key examples for Petra and Machu Picchu. In the larger context, Mithen presents current theoretical arguments for the rise and decline of each of the examined civilizations, concluding in several cases the impact of severe drought as the primary agent of culture collapse that verges closely on environmental determinism. On the whole, *Thirst* provides an encyclopedic review of hydrologic innovations among the global civilizations of the ancient world, fascinating for the geographer and curious amateur alike.

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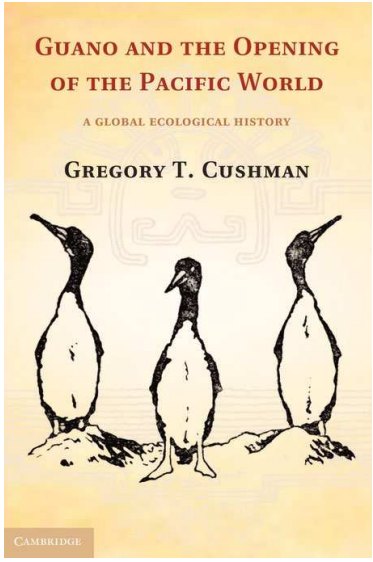
Guano and the Opening of the Pacific World: A Global Ecological History

Gregory T. Cushman. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 2013. ix and 393 pp., maps, photos, tables, notes, bibliography, index. $89.00 cloth (ISBN 978-1-107-00413-9); $31.49 paper (ISBN 978-1-107-65596-6); $29.92 e-book (ISBN 978-1-107-30229-7).



Reviewed by Robin Doughty, Department of Geography and the Environment, University of Texas at Austin, Austin, TX.

Few people will disagree with Cushman's remark that most of us have an ingrained prejudice about seeing, touching, or smelling feces, human or otherwise. George's (2008) *The Big Necessity* makes his point more telling by reminding us that two out of every five of human beings on the planet lives without a toilet. And there are millions upon millions of people without any sanitation at all. It is not a fact that urban readers care to think about. George's book is among several that direct attention toward municipal drainage projects that helped bolster personal health and hygiene during the industrial age. Before then, the Romans had installed some degree of water delivery and waste removal in some parts of their Empire. Afterward, the populace did what medieval city residents did, which was to use a ditch, stream, or privy that the night soil man would empty. Cushman tells us that that bird guano was never despised to that degree, especially when an increasingly entrepreneurial society in Europe established (albeit grudgingly) municipal drains and public uses for water closets in the 1850s. Cushman tells us how, about that time, bird dung was both liberally and carefully being spread in Europe and North America. He traces its application and use to societies in South America's Andes more than 1,500 years ago, however.

Cushman has written an exhaustive, far-reaching, and impressive book. His scholarship guides readers effortlessly through the nitrogen and phosphorus cycles, showing how guano ties with soil fertility and crop nutrition. Cushman explains how bird guano improved soils and plant yields in many places, before its popularity inevitably outstripped claims made for it as the elixir for field crops. Back in a major source region in Peru, the author informs us too much extraction and too little bird protection to help build back the piles of white excrement brought about the bust of the Guano Era that lasted thirty years or so into the 1870s.

Initially, Cushman says, guano became a vital item of self-congratulatory boosterish among English gentlemen farmers, whose colleagues and well-heeled kin bankrolled shipments of the stuff from half the world a way—the nest islands colonized by millions of fish-eating pelicans, cormorants, and boobies off the coast of Peru. These offshore sites, located in the achoveta-swarming belt of the Humboldt Current, literally glowed white from the accumulated droppings of generations of these hungry seabirds. Initially "discovered" by Alexander von Humboldt during his travels in Peru in 1802, the sites were brought to the attention of chemists in France, and later England. English chemist Humphry Davy was a key promoter. Layers upon layers of guano often scores of feet thick, capped the barren islands of Peru's coast. Eventually, the decision was made to export the chemically rich droppings to Europe. With major British interest and monetary backing, bird dung proved a political, economic, and technocratic

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godsend to Peru's postcolonial ruling class. During the Guano Age, which began about 1840, the nation's political elite used the monetary profits from the seabirds and the labor of foreign indentured miners, who lived and worked on the bird islands, to enrich themselves and to construct regional and municipal works, notably in Lima.

Although applications of Peruvian guano in the United Kingdom never topped 25 percent of all fertilizers, Cushman notes, the newsprint of the time crowed about its superiority among fertilizers. The congealed, salt-sodden mounds of bird dung usually hardened inside the hulls of vessels, however, often making them barely seaworthy, as they trundled it into British and nearby ports. Ships out of Peru had to pound through steepling swells that roared into Drake's Passage as they eased into the south Atlantic Ocean beyond Cape Horn. Unable to cope with such dead weight, many vessels beached themselves along the coast to claim insurance after the sheer bulk of wet guano had broken their backs. It was all for the grand cause, however, titled landowners declared, because seabird guano was proving to be a vital component in progressive farming practices; it was of course, also, profitable.

In the third chapter of his ten-chapter book, Cushman furnishes readers with detailed accounts of the kind of special neo-ecological colonialism practiced by European-originated societies, such as the United States. In both the United States and Britain, geopolitical strategists drew up plans and programs for naval officers and others to locate, identify, occupy, and ultimately extract both living and nonliving resources from around the Pacific Ocean basin. Whalers and sealers patrolled the seas and inshore waters in search of marine mammals. Hunters landed on coral atolls and volcanic islands and ransacked the native wildlife. Often with official agreement, they shoveled and shipped out the mounds of feces deemed to be of commercial value produced by the seabirds nesting on these islands. Agents and overseers employed local groups and imported foreign workers to do the hard labor. Cushman makes an excellent case for guano being a key reason why northern hemisphere officials, military, and the adventurer-speculators, who cashed in on the reports of new places, visited and occupied far-flung atolls and volcanic islands, notably in the oceanic tropics. Immediate profit from bird guano dovetailed nicely with strategies befitting longer term geopolitical hegemony.

Once the seabird nest islands had been discovered, the ones with enough guano underwent intense exploitation. While mining the bird dung, agents and workers often killed the native albatrosses, terns, and other seabirds—makers of the guano—for millinery use. They sold off wing and body feathers to agents on the lookout for fashionable headgear and trim for women's clothing. As the demand for guano peaked and supplies were exhausted, government officials turned some of the bird islands to other uses. Cushman explains how, after World War II, military strategists decided that several archipelagoes in the central Pacific Ocean, for example, looked like excellent sites for testing nuclear weapons. Planners and engineers had scant regard for their animal inhabitants and simply removed human indigenes for selected island sites. The bomb makers and testers, notes Cushman, paid not the slightest attention to the presence of myriads of seabirds that flocked to the far-flung land areas during the nesting season. They treated native animals as a nuisance. Bulldozing dunes, felling trees, clearing landing strips, and constructing camps and buildings disrupted the breeding cycles of mammals and birds. The nuclear blasts killed and maimed millions of seabirds, and the radioactive fallout from these tests polluted the earth of the sites, neighboring islands, surrounding lagoons, and seas. The effects have lasted for decades.

Drawing on a wide variety of sources Cushman gives us a detailed and compelling narrative that includes such unexpected ripple effects surrounding the search for guano and commercial use of it. He also places the political events and social contexts in which they were embedded. He addresses the removal of indigenous people, who lost their livelihoods as the guano industry faltered. He describes the denudation of island of floras and faunas due to guano mining and export decline. He talks in somber tones how indigenous people were exploited throughout the Pacific Ocean, about persisting inequalities among small island nations that have been treated as acolytes of the major nations. After guano was mined out in Peru, fishmeal replaced it. The harvesting of fish as fertilizer slowed the recovery of seabird populations that had sparked the interest in fertilizer in the first place. Today, the bird populations are a ghost of their earlier numbers.

Cushman is effective in speaking about the removal and resettlement of people around the Pacific Ocean: how indigenes had learned to subsist in a fragile, diverse, yet rich seascape and how their practices went unheeded in an increasingly technocratic, impersonal society. This is a sad but salutary book because it provides information and insight, documentation, and details about conquest and occupation in recent times. Looking back fifty years or so, he makes clear how misguided it was to blast huge quantities of nuclear poison into the earth, sea, and sky, into the plants and wild animals, and into the human beings who either inadvertently were in the blast zone or were mere

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conscripts observing the tests. Many of these onlookers ultimately paid for their lives as 1,000 times the destructive power used over Japan was scattered over Christmas Island, called Kiribati, and the surrounding seas to make us purportedly more secure from one another.

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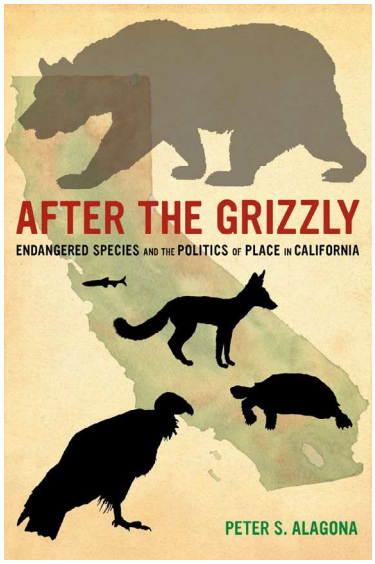
After the Grizzly: Endangered Species and the Politics of Place in California

Peter S. Alagona. Berkeley, CA: University of California Press, 2013. viii and 323 pp., maps, photos, illustrations, notes, bibliography, index. $34.95 cloth (ISBN 978-0-520-27506-5); $34.95 electronic (ISBN 978-0-520-95441-0).

Reviewed by Nathan F. Sayre, Department of Geography, University of California, Berkeley, CA.



Scientists report that we are living in a period of mass extinction—the sixth such episode in the last 500 million years—and that this one is anthropogenic; many view the accelerated disappearance of species as one of the defining characteristics of the Anthropocene. In general, policies to address the Anthropocene are weak, tardy, or absent (think climate change). But this is not so for extinctions, at least in the United States, where the Endangered Species Act of 1973 (ESA) is widely regarded as the strongest environmental statute in the world. Little wonder then that ESA-related conflicts are widespread and growing, and that the literature on endangered species and the ESA is vast. Insight and originality of analysis are not hallmarks of this literature, however. Much of it falls neatly in line—on one side or the other—with polarized public debates: Critics complain of regulatory overreach or property rights infringement, and supporters defend the law while lamenting its inadequate enforcement. Much of the rest is submersed in details: Ecologists evaluate the status and prospects of various species; legal scholars ponder the law's original intent and judicial interpretations; planners and policy experts analyze administrative intricacies and propose conflict resolution techniques. A handful of famous extinct or narrowly saved animals have been well chronicled by historians—passenger pigeons and bison, for example—but synthetic treatments of species endangerment as a present-day socioecological phenomenon are rare.

Peter S. Alagona's *After the Grizzly: Endangered Species and the Politics of Place in California* is a unique and remarkable exception, unquestionably one of the best books about endangered species in the United States ever written. Alagona is a historian, and the book is primarily an environmental history, sharing many qualities with the best work in that field: richly detailed empirical research, compelling contemporary relevance, and arresting stories rendered in eloquent prose. But Alagona also works at the edges of his field, where it overlaps or blurs into geography, science studies, political ecology, and conservation biology. *After the Grizzly* does not engage all of these related fields in as much depth as experts therein might desire, but the synthesis it achieves—of history, geography, ecology, and law—is a major and much needed contribution.

Alagona's objective in the book is twofold: first, to trace the history of the concept of *habitat* from around 1900 to the present in U.S. law, politics, science, and land use; and second, to recuperate the central but often overlooked role that California and Californians have played in that history. Species extinction and endangerment serve as both the empirical crucible for developing these arguments and the narrative thread holding the book together. The attribution of extinction and endangerment to habitat loss is commonplace today, but it was not always so. Alagona shows "how habitat became the concept that connects endangered species to contested places" (p. 3), and how, in turn, endangered species became proxies, surrogates, and scapegoats in the politics of place, which

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he defines as "an ongoing cultural conversation about who should have access to and control over lands and natural resources" (p. 3).

The first half of the book explores the extinction of the California grizzly and the scientific, political, and legal developments that its extinction helped to advance. It opens with the story of Monarch, a massive male grizzly captured in 1889 by one of William Randolph Hearst's reporters and donated by Hearst to a zoo in San Francisco. Monarch died twenty-two years later in Golden Gate Park, where his bones were unceremoniously discarded by a taxidermist, and by 1925, his species—which numbered perhaps as many as 10,000 in 1850—had been extinguished. But its very disappearance helped to cement the grizzly's symbolic value, expressed not only in statues, mascots, and the state flag, but also in the growing capacity of scientists, sportsmen, and civic improvers to mobilize on behalf of California's fauna.

The central figure in Alagona's account is not John Muir—the usual suspect among Californians in existing histories of conservation—but Joseph Grinnell, founding director of the University of California–Berkeley's Museum of Vertebrate Zoology. Backed by a benefactor, Grinnell trained students and built alliances to conduct both meticulous research and dedicated advocacy regarding California's animal species and populations. He sent one of his students to salvage Monarch's bones for science and posterity, as part of his strategy to focus the museum's collecting efforts inside the state (rather than the more exotic locations favored by many other curators). Alagona recounts how Grinnell's "Berkeley Circle" played decisive roles in the passage of protective state laws and policies, initially aimed at market trade in selected species but gradually expanding to embrace habitat for all forms of animal life—or at least those deemed "native" to an "original" or pre-European past. Still later, Grinnell's students assumed key positions within the rapidly expanding federal bureaucracies concerned with Western lands and resources, through which they helped shape national policies and debates about wildlife through surveys, research, educational programming, and professional networking. Previous historians have tended to emphasize actors in the East or Midwest (e.g., Gifford Pinchot, Aldo Leopold) and federal government institutions such as the Park Service and the Forest Service; Alagona reveals the importance of Californians acting from the bottom up.

After the Grizzly pivots around a chapter devoted to the ESA, which Alagona presents as a logical—if also historically contingent—extension of the trajectory traced in his earlier chapters. Politicians thought they were passing a bill to protect famous and charismatic wildlife like the bald eagle, especially on federal lands. But the language applied to all imperiled species—plants as well as animals—and it mandated the designation and protection of habitat, not just species and individuals, including habitat on nonfederal lands. Even the agencies entrusted with enforcement of the ESA were unprepared for what this would subsequently entail. It reflected and reinforced the protected areas paradigm of wildlife conservation, which Alagona traces from rather humble beginnings in the United States on small waterfowl refuges up through the stringent rules and expansive landscapes of the 1964 Wilderness Act.

The second half of *After the Grizzly* assesses the strengths and (growing) weaknesses of the protected areas paradigm through case studies of four California wildlife species covered by the ESA: the California condor, the Mojave Desert tortoise, the San Joaquin kit fox and the delta smelt. In overlapping but roughly chronological order, the four cases reveal the evolving science, law, and politics of the ESA in a rapidly developing state with more listed species than any other except Hawaii. Each case contains surprises and reveals contradictions between the exceptionally unambiguous language of the ESA and the messy, poorly understood realities of species–environment interactions. The condor forced environmentalists to accept the necessity of captive breeding, which many initially opposed as a desecration of the bird's "wild" essence. The tortoise, of which roughly half the surviving population are house pets, provoked a massive habitat conservation plan affecting millions of acres in and around Las Vegas, whose growth machine saw its entire future threatened by the listing, as well as a huge expansion of protected areas in southeastern California. The kit fox, having been squeezed out of most of its range by oil and agricultural development in the San Joaquin Valley, has been dwindling in areas protected in its behalf, even while stable populations have been discovered inside the city of Bakersfield. Finally, the two-inch-long smelt—in a story with an ending that remains radically uncertain—has helped force the state's impossibly complex and intractable water politics to a head.

Each of the four cases could easily warrant a full-length monograph, and Alagona ably packs both background and detail into his account, often aided by vignettes told from the perspective of researchers. He touches on the central role of spatial analysis in the development of conservation biology; the intersection of the ESA with urban growth and planning; and the perennial problem of inadequate and uncertain scientific knowledge about endangered species. The composite picture that emerges

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from his four cases is compelling both for its variation across sites and for its nuance within each one. Alagona manages to communicate the bigger picture of the ESA in context-dependent, highly political empirical realities without getting lost in ever-receding details.

The only complaint one might make against *After the Grizzly* is that Alagona does not do more in concluding the book to take advantage of his cases' conceptual, theoretical, and political potentialities. His epilogue stresses the need to move beyond the protected areas paradigm, to promote "sustainable landscapes" (p. 233), or "the integration of habitats in shared land communities" (p. 232). This is a reasonable conclusion, but as mentioned earlier, scholars outside of environmental history are likely to want more. Alagona's four cases produce a rich aggregate picture or mosaic, but not much in the way of comparative or analytical conclusions. He does not do much conceptually with the politics of place, for example, nor does he engage political economy other than to point out that California's high property values make protected areas exorbitantly expensive. How different actors respond to various kinds and degrees of scientific uncertainty (or ignorance) is one example of a question that Alagona might have done a lot more to explore. The role of nongovernmental organizations—such as The Nature Conservancy and the Center for Biological Diversity—in shaping and altering environmental governance is another. Nonetheless, *After the Grizzly* does a great service in demonstrating that the conservation of endangered species is as much (or more) about the politics of proxies, surrogates, and scapegoats as it is about the ecology of actual plants and animals.

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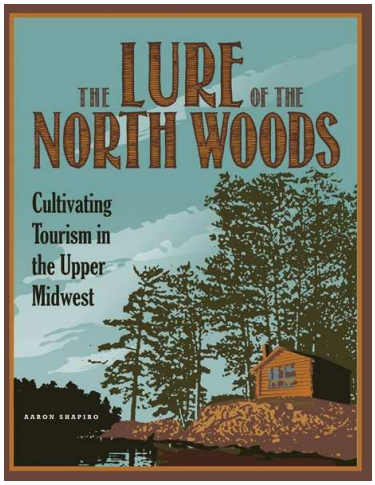
The Lure of the North Woods: Cultivating Tourism in the Upper Midwest

Aaron Shapiro. Minneapolis, MN: University of Minnesota Press, 2013. xx and 300 pp., maps, photos, illusrations, notes, bibliography, index. $24.95 paper (ISBN 978-0-8166-7793-1).

Reviewed by John Fraser Hart, Department of Geography, University of Minnesota, Minneapolis, MN.



Twenty years ago on a nice summer weekend, U.S. 371, which constricted from a four-lane freeway to a slender thirty-mile strip of narrow two-lane road between Little Falls and Brainerd, was one of the most terrifying stretches of highway in the state of Minnesota. It seemed like everyone in the Twin Cities was racing north for the weekend in "the cottage on the lake in the woods up north."

On Friday afternoon, fearsome traffic screeched bumper-to-bumper northward. Fathers impatient to join their families at the cottage north of Brainerd hurtled impetuously along, passing wildly, taking obscene chances, risking their lives for a precious few extra moments at the cottage. On Sunday evening the tsunami reversed. The same fathers raced sullenly back to the Cities, exhausted after a weekend of frantic activity, hot and sunburned, angry at having to leave their families at the lake and facing another week of work, but maybe lucky if they did not have a backseat full of squalling brats.

Mercifully that dreadful stretch of U.S. 371 has now been four-laned, but on nice summer weekends the entire highway between the Twin Cities and the most popular lakeshore resort area in Minnesota remains a test of equanimity and driving skills. The cottage on the lake in the woods up north is the very symbol of the good life in the urban Upper Midwest. And it's always a "cottage," even though an impressive number are now quite palatial, and quite a few of these humble cottages have an assessed valuation of more than a million dollars.

'Twas not always thus. A century ago the north woods of Minnesota, Wisconsin, and Michigan were the "cutover problem." Lumbermen had devastated the magnificent aboriginal forest, leaving a charred wasteland of snags and stumps, and vigorous debate raged about the best and most appropriate use of the land they had cut over. Some dreamers hoped that it could be transformed into productive farmland, but the stingy leached soils and the truncated growing season soon eliminated those aspirations.

Some mystic conservationists blathered about the spiritual benefits of wilderness; they insisted that the north woods should be preserved pristine for those wise enough to appreciate them once Mother Nature had healed the wounds inflicted by the lumbermen. Some of our fellow citizens seem to take great pleasure in telling the rest of us how we should live our lives and enjoy ourselves, if we were but as smart as they are.

The people spoke. During the interwar years it became apparent that the good citizens of the Upper Midwest had elected to use their north woods for recreation, whether as commercial resorts or as private second homes, and they were encouraged by a wide variety of public agencies and private groups that actively promoted tourism.

Some of the first city folk to invade the north woods were victims of asthma and hay fever, who sought relief in the cool clear summer air, and murderers of wild

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animals, hunters and fishermen who preened themselves as "sportsmen" and "conservationists."

They rode north on the railroads that the lumber companies had built to haul their logs south to the sawmills. The first visitors camped out in tents, but before long they inveigled local farmers into letting them sleep in their barn lofts, and paid the farm wife to serve them meals in the farmhouse kitchen. Eventually farmers built simple cabins for them, and thus evolved the traditional resort pattern of a central lodge, where visitors took their meals and entertained each other on rainy days, and a cluster of primitive cabins, little better than wooden tents, where they slept.

Visitors returned to the same familiar resorts each summer, but eventually many decided to build their own lakeshore cottages. Many were "gangplankers," who wanted to pull up the gangplank and keep out others once they were on board, who resisted change, and who were determined to preserve the area just as it was when first they laid eyes on it. Most resort areas in the north woods now have a mix of private cottages and commercial resorts, which range from primitive to palatial, with accommodations to suit every taste and every pocketbook. The commercial resorts are a bit like cruise ships. They have everything you need for a weeklong or longer stay, and you never have to leave once you set foot on board. They know they are competing with Cancun and Waikiki for the tourist dollar, and they are keenly sensitive to their seasonality; they are eager to develop winter activities to reduce their excessive dependence on twelve brief summer weeks.

Tourism has become an integral part of the economy of the north woods in the Upper Lake states. I am disappointed that a historian has told this fascinating tale in such dull, dreary, and tedious fashion. Reading it should not be such a chore. The author has assembled an appropriate amount of information, but he has not managed to impose his order on it, and large chunks of the text read like random undigested notes rather than a finished book. His editors have served him ill.

It is hard to find much structure in a volume that skitters all over the place, from time to time, from topic to topic, from place to place, from state to state, with excessive repetition of essentially similar material. The author tells his tale chronologically, as befits a historian. The first chapter begins before World War I, after lumbermen had raped the forest primeval and decamped; enthusiasts had begun to realize that farms did not automatically follow felled forests, and that the north woods were not amenable to viable agriculture; and a macédoine of concerned citizens, local, regional, and statewide organizations, and units of government at various levels had begun to realize that tourism might offer a better prospect for the local and regional economy, were launching a variety of promotional efforts, and were working to secure public funds to promote tourism.

A recurrent theme in the north woods is constant conflict and tension between competing visions of the wisest and best use of the land, ranging from wilderness to intense resort development, and about the proper and appropriate role of government. The second chapter describes regulation, planning, and zoning, and the use of woods, waters, wilderness, wildlife, and recreational facilities.

The third chapter talks about some of the people who developed, operated, and publicized tourist facilities in the interwar years; the people who came to use these facilities; and the local workers who served them. It covers what the facilities were like, how they were advertised, and how visitors got there. The fourth chapter talks about the promotional literature that influenced popular perception of the north woods and helped to create their contemporary image.

During the Prohibition years, the relatively remote north woods recreation areas had a colorful history: Resort owners stocked their bars with planeloads of illegal liquor flown in from Canada, gambling and slot machines operated on an "as if legal" basis, and gangsters hid out in north woods resorts when things got too hot for them in the city. One northern Wisconsin resort proudly cherished bullet holes in its walls that allegedly were the product of a shootout between gangsters and FBI agents.

The fifth chapter talks about the ways in which policy and development changed after World War II, when better automobiles and improved highways made resort areas more accessible to more people, and public agencies cooperated to foster tourism by regulating resource use, improving highways, developing parks, expanding lake access, preserving scenic beauty, restricting billboards, creating all manner of "tourist attractions," and developing ski areas and snowmobile trails to wean tourist areas from their excessive dependence on twelve brief weeks of summer.

The sixth chapter continues with discussion of continuing controversies about restrictions on mining and lumbering, excessive development of summer cottages on public lands, airplane access to "wilderness" areas, the creation of the Boundary Waters Canoe Area and the Voyageurs National Park, and Indian spearfishing of walleyes on

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off-reservation lakes. The volume concludes with a brief catalog of contemporary "tourist attractions" in the three north woods states. I warned you that it is a potpourri.

I was surprised that it says so little about golf, which is mentioned only in passing, perhaps because it does not jibe with the north woods image, although in many resort areas it has become a far more important attraction than hunting and fishing, because people are retiring at earlier ages and seek a more active lifestyle (if riding around in golf carts can be deemed "active"). Some north woods resort areas have become veritable summer suburbs of distant metropolitan areas.

The volume is surprisingly lifeless. It emphasizes institutions and public agencies and policies and organizations and bureaucrats and functionaries rather than the real flesh-and-blood people who make resort areas vibrant and fascinating. (You know you are in trouble when a full page of agency acronyms precedes the endnotes.) It has many interesting historic illustrations, but they seem to have been inserted merely at random, as if to break the monotony of long pages of dreary text.

The author has no sense of geography, and treats the north woods as a vast undifferentiated blob. He does not recognize the distinctiveness of the massive resort complexes that are eerily similar to cruise ships, the differences between riverine and lakeshore cottage areas, or the striking variations in the clienteles of resort areas. A visitor who seeks a "peace and quiet" resort area will surely be aghast at a "speed and blood" resort area, and the one who wants to hunt and fish will surely be bored and complain that there is nothing to do in an area that emphasizes peace and quiet.

We still need a good book on the geography of resort areas in the north woods of the Upper Midwest.

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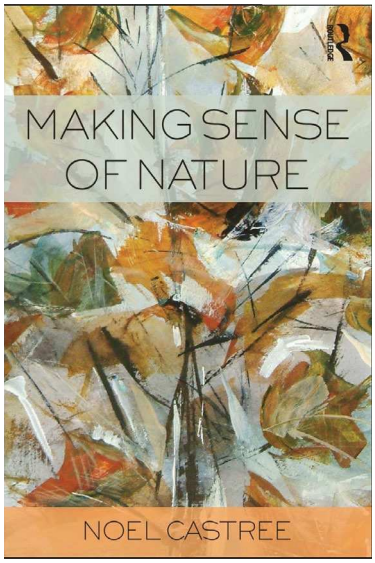
Making Sense of Nature: Representation, Politics and Democracy

Noel Castree. London and New York: Routledge, 2013. $165.00 cloth (ISBN 978-0-415-54548-8), $54.95 paper (ISBN 978-0-415-54550-1).



Reviewed by Lesley Head, Department of Geography and Sustainable Communities, University of Wollongong, New South Wales, Australia.

A new book from Noel Castree is a treat, and we should be grateful that a scholar of his eminence has invested so much effort into a teaching volume, one aimed at upper level undergraduates and master's students. In this book, Castree also aspires to a general readership.

Central to the book are the twin propositions that nature is not natural and that "nature is made sense of *for* you, not *by* you" (p. xvii). As Castree has argued extensively in his papers and crystallizes elegantly here, the former proposition is now so well established in social theory as to be old hat, but much of society continues to invoke concepts of nature in a variety of ways. He demonstrates the second proposition in three sections: "Making Sense of Sense Making," "Representations and Their Effects," and "Key Epistemic Communities: The Making, Mobilization and Regulation of Nature-Knowledge Today."

There are several layers of conversation in this book, aimed at its multiple audiences. The author has an explicit conversation with the (student) reader; its tone is enviably relaxed yet authoritative. From the first page, Castree invites the reader to think for himself or herself, and to challenge the author or any other "epistemic worker" with power to shape societal conversations around nature. He also gently demands that the reader participate by inserting "study tasks" at strategic points in the text. These are easily done—for example, list six things you've seen today that you think "unnatural"—but they force the reader to stop and reflect on the ideas being discussed. Well, not force, as you can cheat, of course, but this teacher expects his students to work and his readers to participate.

The book also speaks well to their teachers, all of whom will be grateful for Castree's cut-through, sensible way of discussing complex issues. The clarity of the argument is partly due to the amount of time the author spends clearing the decks—Chapter 1 starts by telling us what the book is *not* about. Bolding of key terms, boxes, section headings, and detailed footnotes aid navigation, and make it a very easy book to dip in and out of. Sections at the end on further reading and "How to Use This Book" are immensely helpful and practical. In particular, graduate students working as tutors should seize this book. But they are encouraged not to "teach the book"; Castree suggests tutors present "independent material that explores the key issues" in each chapter, rather than presenting a chapter itself. "Some of this material might be case- or problem-led, other material more discursive, theoretical or debate-centred" (p. 307). So, although any of us might take issue with the examples chosen, there is a clear framework by which we could use contrasting, comparative, or more locally relevant ones. This section also (p. 308) suggests the use of sources that get away from Western ones, such as Ingold's early essay on hunting and gathering.

A fascinating third conversation wraps itself around the core of the book. It is directed to those many theorists

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within geography and elsewhere who have declared the end of nature and its companion dualisms, and who advance instead concepts like hybridity and posthumanism. This conversation is expressed, for example, in a critique of literary scholar Timothy Morton at the end of Chapter 1, and in an eight-page endnote called "Why We (Still) Need to Talk About Nature" (pp. 318–25). At first I thought Castree was apologizing too much, but he explains it thus: "As the Preface makes clear, *Making sense of nature* is premised on a proposition that will strike neophytes as controversial, but is very old news to the likes of those whose work I've drawn upon in the previous chapters" (p. 318).

Certainly many physical geographers still find the proposition that nature is not natural controversial, and I hope that many will read this book. If we could be sure that most geography graduates had worked through this book by the end of their degrees, we would have gone a long way toward more productive conversations between both sides of the discipline. Having said that, many other disciplines are also drawn on, and the book should find an audience far beyond geography.

The arguments draw on a rich array of examples encompassing forests, cars, maps, genetically modified food, sexuality, the human genome, soybeans, climate science, and many others. More important, perhaps, by the end of the book the reader has had a thorough grounding in issues of power and politics. By showing how political this process of nature being made sense of *for* us is, Castree provokes the reader to ponder wider questions of power, particularly in the final section on key epistemic communities. This discussion of power provides a particular contribution to participants in that third layer of conversation. I think even the most arcane thinkers "beyond the human" will be provoked and refreshed by Castree's perspectives.

A recurring question for me throughout the book was "Who is this 'all,' 'us,' or 'we' being constantly invoked?" In one sense the answer is simple: It is very explicitly an affluent Western audience, mostly Anglo-American, as surely the majority of student readers will be. Antipodean readers might wish for more local examples but, as noted earlier, the book provides a clear framework into which they can be inserted. With so many examples on offer it would be churlish to be too picky about what has been left out, so that is not my point. Rather I thought there were opportunities not taken to emphasize and connect to one of the key strengths of the social sciences—the capacity and means to systematically approach and offer insights into other worlds, and other ways of making sense of nature, as a constructive comparison to one's own. The study tasks in this book invite students to do many things to analyze their own situation, but readers are not really pushed to imagine how the same task would be undertaken in other places, times, or cultural contexts. No doubt that is beyond the scope of an already ambitious book, but it would have been useful to cross-reference other parts of a degree program where such skills would be taught.

So, how well would this book work if taught in an Indian, Chinese, or Wiradjuri context? Could you use its propositions to analyze how nature is made sense of in a very different intellectual tradition, say one where knowledge and understanding are primarily transmitted by tradition and custom? I look forward to hearing how teachers use this book in diverse cultural contexts, as they undoubtedly will. In an Australian example, I'm not sure that it would be enough to insert a few indigenous examples into the framework (I should say a few more, as there are some). Rather you would want to pit the power of this book against a strong statement framed within an indigenous ontology, for example Suchet-Pearson et al.'s (2013) attribution of authorship to "Bawaka Country." Questions of power and representation still pertain, but it is also about the power of the book. I should be clear here that Castree makes no claim to universalism. And, as the examples in the book amply demonstrate, Western epistemic communities are increasing their global reach. Arguably, his focus on the power of diverse epistemic communities is precisely what makes it transferable across different cultural contexts. Even so, there are good reasons to emphasize to "our" own students the specificity of both their own situation and those of others.

Finally, there is a challenge in the proposition that "nature is made sense of *for* you, not *by* you" for those of us who believe that new ways of thinking beyond dualisms are an essential part of crafting sustainable futures for a habitable earth. How should we best use our own power as epistemic workers? How might we analyze our lack of power relative to some of the globalizing forces discussed here? There is an ongoing conversation to be had on these questions, one among many provoked by this book. The generous scholarly tone of *Making Sense of Nature* affirms that Castree will undoubtedly be up for such conversations.

Reference

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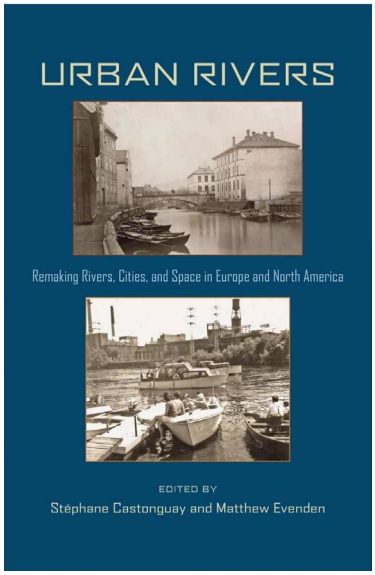
Urban Rivers: Remaking Rivers, Cities, and Space in Europe and North America

Stéphane Castonguay and Matthew Evenden, eds. Pittsburgh, PA: University of Pittsburgh Press, 2012. ix and 302 pp., maps, photos, illustrations, notes, bibliography, index. $25.95 paper (ISBN 9780822961857).

Reviewed by Giacomo Parrinello, Institute of Social Ecology, Alpen Adria University, Vienna, Austria.



Some of the best contributions on human–environment interplay deal with rivers in urban-industrial societies, and the reshaping of watercourses provoked by industrialization. Modern rivers are a clear example of the transformative action of human societies on what we call nature: Humans have dammed, concretized, diverted, and fouled rivers, building "organic machines" that they do not fully understand. Yet, on the other hand, rivers exemplify the dynamism and autonomy of natural forces and features that many scholars in environmental history and historical geography emphasize: Even the most tamed and harnessed rivers flow where and when they are not expected, they flood and change their courses, and they disrupt arrangements and modify expectations. The edited collection by Stéphane Castonguay and Matthew Evenden relates closely to this scholarship, while turning toward a specific and less explored field of investigation: the relationship between rivers and urban environments. The urban rivers of the title, explain the editors, are "rivers that flow through cities" but also rivers "that have been folded into the process of urbanization" (p. 3) through a complex web of relations. How did the making of modern urban-industrial environments shape or reshape these urban rivers? How, in turn, have urban rivers influenced, conditioned, or complicated the making of urban-industrial environments?

Castonguay and Evenden are two Canadian scholars whose background says much about their interest in human–environment relationship and methodological cross-pollination. Castonguay is Canada Research Chair in Environmental History at Université du Québec à Trois Rivières and has already published on both the environmental history of rivers and the history and geography of the urban environment. Evenden is a trained historian and now Professor of Environment and Sustainability in the Department of Geography of the University of British Columbia, and has authored two river histories. Castonguay and Evenden have previously collaborated in establishing the Network in Canadian History and Environment (NICHE), an organization and a portal that gathers resources and contributions from Canadian scholars in environmental history and historical geography. The editors have selected twelve contributors by integrating participants in a conference in Trois Rivières in 2009 with other invited authors. The selection offers a good sample of current historical and geographical research on rivers and cities in (north) Western Europe and North America. The choice of the contributors, geographers and historians alike, also mirrors the methodological and disciplinary interchange that transpires from the scientific path of the editors, and is representative of an encouraging trend of interdisciplinary collaboration.

In the thorough introduction to the volume, Castonguay and Evenden emphasize that the research question framing the collection relates to scholarly concerns common to both environmental history and historical geography,

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and builds on three distinct subfields of scholarship. It speaks to literature on urban reform and sanitation, extending its focus beyond infrastructure and society and toward a more explicit recognition of rivers' specific ecologies. It integrates spatial analysis methods and concerns, by considering changing spatial links between cities on the one hand and rivers and their basins on the other. Third, it considers the city as an "environmental polity" (p. 5), bringing into focus conflicts and competitions, inequalities and governance systems concerning urban–riverine relationships. The editors set out explicit definitions of essential concepts such as space, defined as an "evolving set of relations," and environment, embodying "a dynamic set of natural processes partly shaped by human actions, partly independent of them, and, in many instances, so intertwined to be inseparable" (p. 2). Along the same line, the editors fairly declare their theoretical inclination (and indirectly that of the contributors) to a "less constructivist" approach. Not all can be reduced to social construction, they claim: Environmental circumstances matter because they "change spaces and put limits to human geographies" (p. 2).

Setting out definitions and concepts is a merit of the introduction. Throughout the twelve chapters of the book, divided into three thematic sections, issues outlined by the editors deploy and intermingle differently, but they also gain concreteness. In the first section, devoted to "Industrialization and Riverine Transformations," Chloé Deligne outlines the transformation of the Brussels hydrological network under the influence of changing economic activities and social priorities, and points out a contested shift in "socio-hydraulic regime" (p. 29) with an impact that extended outside the municipal area. Jim Clifford shows through analysis based on geographic information systems how the environmental and geographical features of the Lea River in West Ham (London) initially attracted industries, and how industry-driven transformation of the river ultimately contributed to industrial decline. Eyvind Bagle discusses the role of the Akerselva River in the urban and industrial development of Christiania (now Oslo), and the conflict between industrial uses and urban sanitation projects. Michèle Dagenais analyzes the integration of the Rivière des Prairies into Montreal's urban space and the confrontation among hydroelectric power projects, urban waterworks, and riverbank residents.

If the impact of industry and the conflicts between industrial uses and urban priorities form the bulk of the first section, the second section, "Urbanization and the Functions of Rivers," seems to prioritize the interplay between rivers and the spatiality of urbanization. Sabine Barles illustrates how changes in Parisian urban metabolism modified the role of the Seine and the relations among the capital, the river, and the hinterland. Gertrud Haidvogl analyzes the evolution of Vienna's urban space in relation to the Danube floodplain, and the urban occupation of the floodplain after the channelization of the river. Uwe Luebken brings into focus the relationship among European colonization, modern urbanization on the floodplains of the Ohio River, and increased flood risk. Jean-Claude Robert illustrates the changing role played by the St. Lawrence River in orienting the colonization of Canada and the urban development of Montreal. Chris Smout, finally, analyzes urban and industrial growth in the Firth of Forth estuary (Scotland) and the impact on the ecology of the estuary, underscoring the paradoxical outcomes on biodiversity and fauna of recent restoration initiatives.

The third and final section of the book is titled "Territorialities of Water Management," and is devoted to the larger hydrological settings of urban rivers and urban influences on water management. Frédéric Graber brings us back to nineteenth-century Paris and to the waterworks commanded to increase the city's water supply, focusing on scientific discourses and conflicts generated by a planned diversion. Craig Colten, by comparing water management in Chicago, Washington, DC, and Atlanta, illustrates the broad array of factors that rule urban–riverine relationships at the river basin scale, and invites us to consider basins "as urban territories as much as fluvial forms" (p. 218). Shannon Stunden Bower, in what is clearly the less "urban" chapter of the book, analyzes the attempts to impose watershed management in rural Manitoba as a solution to problems of drainage in the region, making the point that urban influences might not be always significant.

Partition in sections is inevitably disputable (as the editors acknowledge) and some chapters are perhaps more readable than others. To be sure, they all are compelling, well researched, and adequately illustrated, and they are effectively interconnected. In the conclusion, the editors point out some of the common threads, namely the impact of the urban and industrial revolutions on the way urban societies used rivers, the emergence of new social conflicts and new figures to rule those conflicts, and the new spatiality of urban–riverine relationships. Other common issues could perhaps enrich that list, such as, for instance, the recurring environmental contradictions between urban growth and industrialization in managing urban rivers.

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Overall, the presence of strong commonalities reinforces the effectiveness of the editors' efforts. This is a consistent and solid collection, which advances the understanding of urban–riverine relationships in modern times and demonstrates the potential of methodological integration. It enlarges the view and scope of both urban environmental and river histories and geographies by demonstrating their interconnection. It proves the effectiveness of integrating spatial analysis and environmental concerns. It accounts for environmental influences on historical and geographical changes, avoiding the traps of environmental determinism. The edition is consistent with the good standards of a book series—*History of the Urban Environment*—well known to practitioners of urban environmental history. For all these reasons, *Urban Rivers* is recommended reading not only for scholars concerned with urban environments and riverine issues, or with the environmental implications of urbanization and industrialization, but for all those interested in human–environment interplay and interdisciplinary dialogue between environmental history and historical geography.

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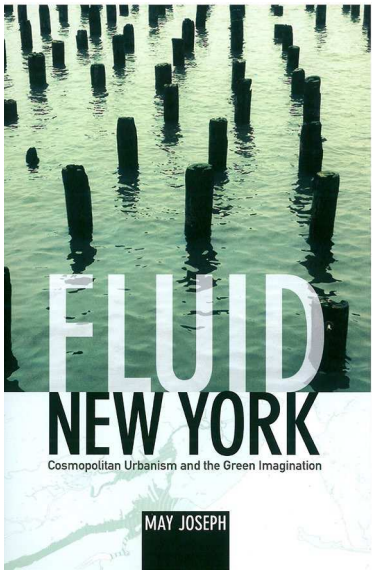
Fluid New York: Cosmopolitan Urbanism and the Green Imagination

May Joseph. Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2013. xii and 248 pp., maps, notes, bibliography, index. $84.95 cloth (ISBN 978-0-8223-5460-4); $23.95 paper (ISBN 978-0-8223-5472-7).

Reviewed by Eric Pawson, Department of Geography, University of Canterbury, Christchurch, New Zealand.



The evocative title of this book encapsulates its two central concerns. The first is how a city planned and developed with specific intents and hard edges can be adapted to recognize not only the heterogeneous nature of its history and peoples, but also within the vulnerabilities and opportunities of its ecology. This is what underlies the "singular question" that the author seeks to explore: "What is the vision shaping New York today?" (p. 9). Joseph roots her discussion in the colonial origins of the place, as a trading port that was part of a worldwide network of maritime trade. She then unpicks the irony of the metropolitan becoming of New York as "a cellular unit" that like many water-based cities for long turned its back on its waterfront.

The book is organized in four parts. The first, "Fluid Urbanism," investigates the importance of water for New York's ongoing self-invention during the current century, or broadly between the disasters of 11 September 2001 and Hurricane Sandy. This is based on a discussion of its history as a maritime city in global context, but the literal erasure at the local scale of its aqueous geographies of streams, marshes, and watery edges. The second part, "Cosmopolitan Frugality," draws more widely than a standard Eurocentric approach to explore how different transnational urban histories inflect local urban practices. The discussion of frugality in this context is not particularly convincing and does not seem clearly anchored to the book as a whole.

The book gets back on track in the third part, "Ecological Expressivity." The purpose is to explore specific acts of "political cosmopolitan citizenship" in the context of sustainable city-making. There are some good discussions of "greening hardscape," and of the emergence of festivals of biopower in an auto-shaped city (the New York City Marathon, biking, and later, swimming). The fourth part, "Maritime Mentalities," attempts to cement the themes of the book, with discussions of Coney Island, Christopher Street and Gay Pride, and Halloween. Although these are interesting discussions of expressions of urban performance and belonging and the places in which these occur, it is not always clear how they consolidate an argument.

In many respects this is an annoying book. It is bustling with ideas that delight as well as frustrate as the reader works through not only a preface, but also a prologue and then an introduction. What emerges seems more like a series of vignettes than a sustained argument in the conventional sense. There are frequent repetitions of simple facts between and sometimes within paragraphs. The twin themes often do sit well aside from one another, and it would perhaps be strange if they did not. But one can be left wondering how many of the author's examples of cosmopolitan urbanism have any connection to the "green imagination" of the subtitle, a term that is never really explained.

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The book has other telling characteristics. The author grew up in Dar es Salaam, but has lived in New York for more than two decades. This has shaped how she encounters the city. It enables her to envisage it historically as an outpost in the evolving global tentacles of imperial trade. At the same time, she has worked to engage deeply with its places, festivals, and events. This cuts both ways: It delivers a rich ethnography, at the same time assuming much on the part of readers who have not lived in New York. Few of the places under discussion are mapped, and although there are several valuable historical maps, these are not always clearly reproduced. There is also a fascinating politics to the emerging vision reshaping New York that deserves to be probed more deeply. There is some discussion of Michael Bloomberg's policies as mayor, and his PlaNYC 2030 initiative to green the city, but any tensions between this and the loss of public amenities in the face of gold-plated property development go largely unexplored.

Perhaps most frustrating for the reader who has been drawn in by the book's title, its cover (of the piles of an abandoned wharf deep in water), and its cover description, is that the ecological theme frequently disappears for long stretches. One explanation might be that Hurricane Sandy occurred as the book was going to press, yet it is this event that the author attributes with permanently changing New York's relationship to its waterfront (p. 2). Sandy takes center stage in the prologue and in the last short chapter. This gives the book an opening manifesto, "a city shockingly under-prepared for its ecological future as a coastal city" (p. 3), although much of its contents explore the nature of cosmopolitan citizenship in ways that sometimes illustrate interactions that occur within or create new ecological spaces, but often have little to do with this.

The reward of reading this book, however, is a series of insights that prompt reflection, ideas, or disagreement. To give one example, there is a wonderful vignette in the penultimate chapter about Governor's Island, 800 yards off the tip of Manhattan. It came into city ownership only a decade ago, and has become a center for festivals, fairs, and art installations. The extension of the ferry service until midnight has made it a destination for late-night partygoers. The island also provides fresh vistas of New York, no more so for the author than during the quadricentennial celebrations of Henry Hudson's arrival in New York Harbor in 2009. Hudson was an employee of the Dutch East India Company; a replica of his ship was followed by a flotilla of Dutch barges. It was, writes Joseph, "a rare month when one experienced the sensation of living in a city by the sea" (p. 197).

This example draws together history and future, citizenship and ecology, in a way that this book does so well when it succeeds. In these moments, it provides a well-grounded contemporary history of what the author calls "small gestures" toward making peace and exploring the potential for further engagement with an aqueous geography. Whether such gestures will be enough is the subject of emerging debate in marine towns and cities the world over. But *Fluid New York* has some surprising takes on the matter, for a place that for so long was associated with standing firm against nature.

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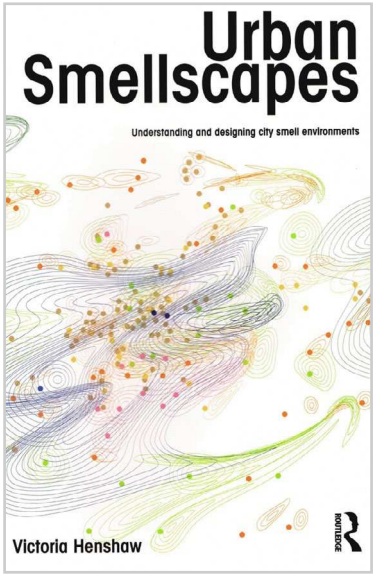
Urban Smellscapes: Understanding and Designing City Smell Environments

Victoria Henshaw. New York, NY: Routledge, 2014. xiii and 256 pp., illustrations, figures, charts, maps, glossary, bibliography, index. $49.95 paper (ISBN 978-0-415-66206-2); $170.00 cloth (ISBN 978-0-415-66203-1); $49.95 electronic (ISBN 978-0-203-07277-6).

Reviewed by Bodo Kubartz, Independent Scholar, Brüggen, Germany.



Over the last couple of years, the study of the relationship between the human senses and sociospatial relations has grown considerably. Smell has traditionally been conceived as one of the weaker human senses and has tended to be overlooked. In *Urban Smellscapes,* Victoria Henshaw argues that the relationship between smell and society has changed: In the past, cities and landscapes have mainly been grasped and shaped by a modern sense of vision. The predominance of audiovision determines practices of architects in urban design and planning. In postmodern times, however, the sense of smell becomes more relevant. Therefore, the book focuses on designing cities according to the sense of smell.

The author's most prevalent intention is to lay out how the sense of smell governs the ways we experience space and place, how we shape architectures, and how smell influences urban design and planning. In fact, she explains that smell environments are constantly changing and she offers many examples of how this is done. The book has two relevant goals: first, to explore the role of odor for designing and planning towns and cities; and second, to rethink approaches of the relationship between smell and urban design. A related goal is to inform built environment professionals on how to avoid pitfalls. Beyond just claiming that a rethinking is necessary, the author also introduces tools for designing urban smellscapes. Thus, scholars and practitioners in urban studies are the book's target audience.

Some terms are presented as relevant for the understanding of the connection between smell and space: A smellscape is "the totality of the olfactory landscape, accommodating both episodic (fore-grounded or time limited) and involuntary (background) odours" (p. 5). As a spatial entity, a smellscape is fragile, temporal, and partial. It comes into being, however, through the practice of smellwalking and smellmapping: "smellwalking is a form of sensewalking [thus] a varied method by which one might 'investigate and analyse how we understand, experience and utilize space,' and which usually involves focusing on sensory information" (p. 42). The focus is on information that is gained through one specific sensory mode; Henshaw considers smellwalking to be different from passive or receptive perceptual affection. Instead, this research practice depends on smelling in search. Thereupon, the identification and analysis of different types of smells and a mapping of those smells becomes a relevant practice. Smellwalking and smellmapping are usually done for research, educational, or documentation purposes and contribute to understanding people's everyday olfactory experiences and memories of space and place.

What is important when considering smell to urban planning and design? The book adds new thoughts and insights to urban geography and urban studies, which I summarize according to the aspects of "place" (the urban

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built environment) and "senses" (the human body, including all senses).

In terms of place, the book calls for a "new sensory approach to urbanism" (p. 22). It delivers an interaction between the literature on the senses, planning and design, and place perception and the literature on smell and urban smellscapes. Therewith, it uses the sense of smell as a unique entry point to look at place experience. This understanding is coaligned by an interpretation that brings life back into the city: "smell[s] in the city … occur as a result of the coming together of people, odours and the environment, occurring at specific points in space and time" (p. 2). This refill of life in the city is not without contradictory positions, however. Henshaw explains that cities are sites of olfactory conflict: Which smells are allowed to be and not to be creates discussions and actions between different interest holders. It relates to the question of managing good and bad fragrances as well as a challenge to qualify smellscapes. What becomes clear is that several interests—city layout and planning, health, and sanitation, for instance—are discussed, compared, and mediated in terms of policies that are conceived as optional and relevant to lead to clean air, sanitary salvation, and civilization. In this context, the view on urban smellscapes quickly permeates into other geographies (developing countries, certain quarters in a city) and literatures on human rights, development, and equality.

In terms of the aspect of the senses, smell is introduced and characterized as a relevant mediator: It has an impact on the everyday life of people, it is a vehicle of memory in terms of odor recollection and identification, and, quite literally, smells define places. Henshaw stresses the relevance of the body for designing architectural space. She points out that, for instance, females are more capable of detecting, identifying, and recollecting smells; she mentions the decrease by age and depending on bodily state and affection (e.g., smoking), as well as the relevance of environmental factors. Thus, bodies matter in terms of shaping urban design and planning. Two examples of how the book understands and analyzes smell in urban design and planning are the connection between smell and food and smell and urban policies.

First, food is understood as socially situated as an "instrument for expressing and shaping interactions between humans [and as a] primary gift and a repository of condensed social meanings" (p. 85). Henshaw explains the relations among food, smell, and the construction of socio-spatial structures through the components of markets, international districts, ventilation, and fast food in specific UK contexts. Her research uncovers hierarchies of smells, with favorite smells of particular food or beverage (bread and coffee) and less favored ones (meat and fast-food grease). Therewith, she offers in-depth research of several geographic cases (e.g., Doncaster and Manchester in the United Kingdom) and strongly suggests that the physical and socioeconomic contexts at a site are connected to odor expectation and acceptance.

Second, direct and indirect impacts of policies on urban smellscape experiences such as the law on smoking and the related change of pub spheres are introduced as examples of how urban policies and smell interrelate. Furthermore, the changes of building layout and development of café culture in terms of the permeability and leakage of odors between internal and external environments (fresh scents = positive; old, spilled scents = negative, hangovers of the night before) are presented. A larger part of this empirical focus is on smoking and odor: The majority of smoking legislation has indeed led to a changing behavior of smokers; people experience streets differently and behave differently with impacts, as Henshaw lays out, on the UK dry cleaning industry and other neighboring industries. The book illustrates the negative judgment of cigarette smoke, whereas cigars, pipes, and marijuana are considered differently. The understanding of the changing nature of the odors and places in which they are detected is new. From an urban design and management perspective, odor challenges the temporal and spatial fix of the built environment and suggests other solutions, for example, through ventilation and air flow. Thus, the positive aspects of the recognition and discussion of smells, smellscapes, and cities have been characterized. Hereafter, I summarize some further remarks.

First, the book is empirically rich; however, the focus is mainly on the United Kingdom. A continuing elaboration and research on other geographical spaces is necessary to understand the uniqueness versus the universality of the UK case.

Second, Henshaw recognizes the historical dominance of vision and hearing and stresses the recent reevaluation and relevance of the other senses, including smell. In my viewpoint, a litmus test in future research needs to examine power architectures between the senses. This guarantees a more accurate view on how and where things in urban planning and design are changing. On the other hand, it enables us to characterize in which circumstances the senses of vision and hearing have become repositioned in the work of built environment professionals. This requires a thorough investigation of urban design and planning professions and institutions, however.

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Third, the aspect that only temporal characteristics of smells can be mapped is mentioned. This effervescent nature challenges traditional practices of geographers to depict and visualize experiential maps: Instead of delivering spatially fixed and mapped truths, it is much more about individual and temporal affections. This challenges orthodox practices of geographers and how we communicate knowledge through maps, however.

Fourth, Henshaw mentions that the modernization of smellscapes—thus, the belief in a spatial organization of smellscapes through jurisdiction and urban design—is suggested. How far this leads to societal change and progress—or uneven geographies, as one could assume—over the longer term is yet to anticipate and examine though.

In sum, the book is a valuable and detailed addition to the literature on the human senses, urban design and planning, and space and place. It combines rich qualitative data and examples of how smells are mediators and signals of urban life and for urban planners and politicians. With the necessary geographic sensitivity of designing and planning built environments also according to the sense of smell, the applicability and alignment of other planning methods and policies can be attained.

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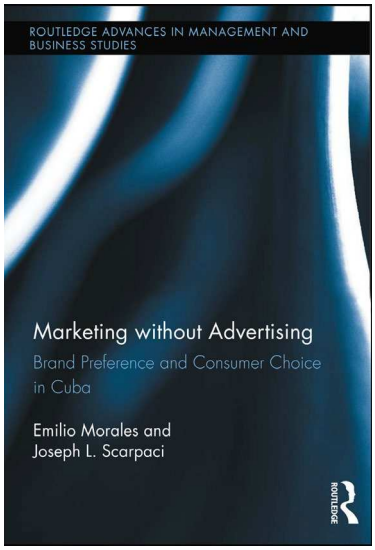
Marketing Without Advertising: Brand Preference and Consumer Choice in Cuba

Emilio Morales and Joseph L. Scarpaci. New York, NY: Routledge, 2012. xx and 229 pp., photos, diagrams, tables, illustrations, notes, glossary, bibliography, index. $135.00 cloth (ISBN 978-0-415-89698-6); $135.00 electronic (ISBN 978-0-203-13414-6).

Reviewed by Sarah A. Blue, Department of Geography, Texas State University, San Marcos, TX.



Marketing Without Advertising: Brand Preference and Consumer Choice in Cuba is written by Cuban businessman Emilio Morales and geographer and Cuba expert Joseph L. Scarpaci. Scarpaci has written three books and dozens of articles on Cuba, providing high-quality, field-based empirical work on topics ranging from urban planning to heritage tourism. Scarpaci now serves as Chair and Associate Professor of Marketing at West Liberty University. Emilio Morales offers the unique perspective of a high-ranking Cuban professional who worked for many years on the island as a liaison to foreign corporations investing in Cuba's recently dollarized sector of the economy. From 2000 until he migrated permanently to the United States in 2006, Morales directed strategic planning for the marketing division of CIMEX, the largest "dollar store" chain, controlled by the Cuban Council of the State (p. 160). Together, these authors are well positioned to provide insight into the past, present, and future of marketing and advertising in Cuba.

This volume offers a "snapshot" of the reality of contemporary Cuban consumption (and limited marketing). The authors predict that the five years from 2012 to 2017 will be key to Cuba's transition toward a gradual privatization of the economy and anticipate the eventual acceptance and implementation of mass marketing in Cuba's near future. Anticipating the end of the U.S. embargo against Cuba and an opening for U.S. businesses, Morales and Scarpaci lay the groundwork for future marketing in Cuba. The current state of retailing, marketing, consumption, brand awareness, and brand development is analyzed here for future vendors and investors. Through analysis of Cuban government data, surveys, focus groups, and in-depth case studies of Cuban joint ventures, the authors seek to dispel misconceptions about Cuban society and its economy. Namely, the Cuban marketplace is not a blank slate, nor are Cubans naive, time-starved consumers. The authors conclude that Cubans have developed their preferences through word of mouth and have modest or practical consumer desires, not the crazed behavior of those perpetually denied access to consumer goods.

The greatest strengths of this volume are the authors' firsthand knowledge of Cuban culture, society, and economy; their access to Cuban government data; and their use of empirical data gathered in Cuba. During Soviet times, Cuban data were routinely dismissed as fabricated and unreliable. Although the authors do not discuss the underlying assumption of the data's reliability, their reliance on it suggests that Cuban economic data have become less politicized in the last two decades. These are the data that potential investors will have to work with in the near future. Morales's experience provides a level of detail about the inner workings of socialist mechanisms that is generally unavailable to an English-speaking audience. For example, the authors detail the organization and workings of the Ministry of Internal Commerce (MINCIN), including its role in restructuring commerce

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and retail services in Cuba in the early 1960s and its subsequent development of a longitudinal consumer panel database on Cuban consumer behavior before its elimination in the early 1990s (pp. 22–24). Informative tables based on primary data sources are found throughout the book; examples include a comprehensive summary of macroeconomic policy changes in Cuba from 1959 to 2011 (Table 4.1), case studies of nine joint-venture and state companies operating in hard currency in Cuba in 2011 (summarized in Table 6.1), a compilation of recent policy changes (Table 7.2), and Cuban phone company statistics on cell phone use and expenditures (Table 7.3).

The book's primary focus is marketing, and its target audience is retailers interested in marketing their products in Cuba in the near future. There is a considerable amount of marketing theory and jargon that will not be as compelling to geographers. For example, Chapter 3 examines the applicability of the "consumer based brand equity (CBBE)" model to a future Cuba. Chapter 6 examines the successful joint-venture brand promotion of nine Cuban products in depth, with the objective of providing insight into "the comparative advantages, weaknesses and opportunities for sector-specific forays into the Cuban market" (p. 111). The volume provides a fine level of detail regarding specific Cuban products or brand development that would certainly be useful for foreign investors or Cubans on the island who work in this sector. On the other hand, the focus on marketing and Cuban data also results in a lack of engagement with the existing English-language literature on remittances and the informal economy. Political scientist Susan Eckstein's extensive work on social remittances in Cuba, for example, is missing from the discussion.

With special emphasis on the post-1993 economic opening, the authors emphasize the key role of remittances in introducing new brands and brand preferences, providing capital for small businesses on the island, and overall providing an alternative to societal dependence on the state. Cuba and remittance scholars will find Chapter 7 of interest, as it gives a new "marketing" twist to the study of remittances in Cuba and is rich in empirical data. The emphasis given here is the impact of remittances on household purchasing power, consumer behavior, and entrepreneurialism. Branded goods, sent primarily from family in Miami, are one way that Cubans acquire brand knowledge and preferences. Morales and Scarpaci argue that remittances have reshaped Cuba's economic and social spheres, increasing family ties with exiles, creating a hierarchical workplace where access to hard currency is prioritized, shaping consumer and entrepreneurial tastes and preferences, and increasing individualistic and materialistic lifestyles. The authors use Morales's access to Cuban economic data to estimate remittance figures and associated purchasing power since 1993. Their estimates appear high relative to other estimates—US$1.9 billion in 2010 and US$18.1 billion total since 1993—but are grounded in published Cuban statistics combined with estimates based on the number of airport arrivals to and from the island. The authors estimate that remittances account for two thirds of all hard currency in circulation.

Although the volume's primary contribution is to those investors interested in marketing their products in a future Cuban economy, geographers who are interested in the Cuban economy, specifically remittances and exported products such as tobacco and rum, will also find valuable detail here. What might strike other readers as an excessive amount of detail would serve geographers who are interested in knowing more about Cuban joint ventures, remittances, or iconic Cuban products. Chapter 5 is an in-depth case study of the *Casa de Habanero* franchise, a Spanish-Cuban joint venture that has successfully marketed Cuban cigars internationally. In Chapter 6, a discussion of cigars sold under the *Habanos S.A.* brand includes a four-page detailed description of the origin, history, and production of Cuban tobacco. The four-page glossary, filled with both Cuba-specific and marketing terms, is a useful resource for anyone studying the Cuban economy. For the nonbusiness audience, however, the overuse of acronyms such as WOM (word of mouth), B2B (business-to-business) and B2C (business-to-consumer) is irksome.

Marketing Without Advertising engages with the Cuban American community in Miami, where there is great potential for future investment in Cuba. There is a tension throughout the book between criticizing the Cuban system (required for any cache with Cuban Americans in Miami) and veiled praise that recognizes progress Cuba has made in the eighteen-year span that marks the initiation of limited capitalist reforms and the writing of this book (1993–2011). The examination of a Spanish-Cuban joint venture that produces processed meats under strict international codes of quality control, for example, gives the reader an overall impression of high-quality products that is unexpected in a communist economy (i.e., in comparison to media reporting on Chinese food products). Rather than emphasizing the high quality of these Cuban products (which is stated in passing as fact), the authors stress the closed nature of the economy and the inability of the Cuban consumer to purchase more given their limited salaries. Although both are true (joint-venture Cuban products are in general of high quality and Cubans

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have very limited purchasing power), the book has a constant underlying tension that counters indirect praise with direct criticism of the economic system and Cubans' lack of access to marketing.

Cuba is one of the few countries in the world that could claim to be liberated from advertising. Marketing and advertising, with their close association to consumer capitalism and its attendant ills, have historically been ideologically incompatible with Revolutionary Cuba. The country's nearly 500 billboards promote political or public health and safety messages rather than consumer products, and its four national television outlets and more than seventy radio stations are free of commercial advertisements (p. 108). Due in part to the fifty-two-year U.S. embargo, Cuban rather than U.S. brands of soda, personal hygiene, fast food, alcohol, and tobacco products dominate the Cuban marketplace. This book is laying the groundwork for the near future when Cuba is no longer a commercial-free oasis. So one possible "take away" message—although perhaps not intended—is "Get there as soon as you can!"

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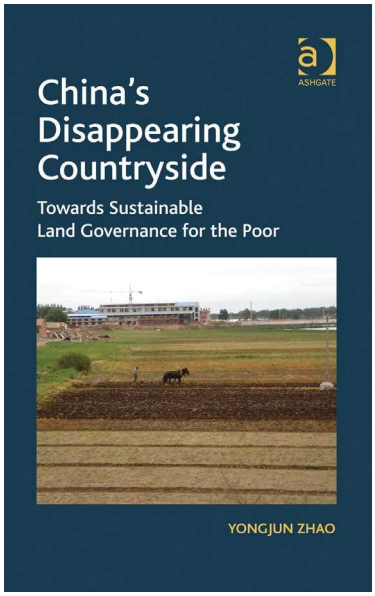
China's Disappearing Countryside: Towards Sustainable Land Governance for the Poor

Yongjun Zhao. Burlington, VT: Ashgate, 2013. i–ix and 161 pp., maps, tables, index. $98.96 cloth (ISBN 9781409428213); $109.95 electronic PDF (ISBN 9781409428220); $109.95 electronic ePUB (ISBN 9781409484752).

Reviewed by Gregory Veeck, Department of Geography, Western Michigan University, Kalamazoo, MI.



In Yongjun Zhao's volume, the great complexity of rural land reform in China is well illustrated, even if possible solutions to the current crisis are not forthcoming. The central tenet of the volume, that any solution to land reform must be placed in the context of broader policies leading to sustainable development, the promotion of local rural governance, and the promotion of social equity, can hardly be disputed. Less clear is what steps Zhao believes should be taken, and what specific policies and programs should be enacted, maintained, or halted to correct the current untenable situation. A comprehensive solution seems beyond any single author, but Zhao provides readers with a thoughtful summary of the major issues. Perhaps most important, he places the issue of land reform in the much larger and welcome context of rural social and economic equity and the need for the promotion of local governance. Land is never just about land.

The book is a set of essays exploring different facets of equitable and effective land reform as opposed to a single fluid volume. Linkages to wide-ranging international literatures provided in the early chapters are welcome, as they seldom appear in books about China's problems. Early on, Zhao seems to argue that although the nation's developmental path has taken a route somewhat different from other nations, the essential goals of land reform, land transfers, and rural equity and development are universal. On the other hand, Zhao seems to place significant emphasis on the unique aspects of land use and allocation in China that emerged with pragmatic policies intended to solve the problem of the moment from 1949 to the present. At the end of the day, it is not clear if Zhao is arguing that China's experience is unique or if experiences in other nations provide useful points of departure for the creation of a new, far more comprehensive, set of policies related to rural land reform in China. Despite his dedication to the relevance of international experiences related to land tenure and related social equity efforts in the introductory chapters, as the book moves along, the unusual, if not unique, situation in China that he summarizes seems to counter his own argument.

Few contemporary issues are as central to the health of rural China and the farm sector as agricultural land reform. The origins of the current dilemma are rooted in the past. In this book, Zhao takes a historical approach by laying out the issue via three chapters dedicated to "setting the table"; bringing readers unfamiliar with the topic up to speed through summaries of land issues and conflicts before 1949, during the Maoist era, and in the post-1978 reform era. His indictment of the current flawed system (Chapter 5) built around a field-work-based case study in Guyuan County, Hebei, near Beijing is excellent, providing a concrete example of growing inequity and the complexity of the problem for a specific place at a specific time.

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Since 1949, land in China has been owned by the Chinese people, but usufruct rights for rural land, including land used for forestry, agriculture, aquaculture, and husbandry, as well as for housing, transport, and other rural infrastructure are distributed through a diverse and sometimes contradictory array of policies and programs to a wide range of government and private entities. Although there are several exceptions, most rural households still retain use of their land via the Household Responsibility System (HRS) initiated in the late 1970s and early 1980s. Zhao convincingly argues the current system is breaking down, and must be replaced with a new system that is predicated on local conditions but also requiring the input of local agents, especially the farmers most affected.

Land reform, even in the broadest context promoted by Zhao, is a moving target. Rural China is changing at least as fast as the rest of the nation. Given the increasing migration of rural laborers to urban areas, low returns to the small holdings allocated to each family, low crop prices, intervening opportunities made possible by rural industrialization, and the nation's incredible economic growth, the cache of full-time farming has significantly diminished in recent years. To shore up strategic crop production, especially grains and cotton, the government instituted seemingly endless reforms to maintain and hopefully invigorate the farm sector. These reforms include the popular abolition of universal agricultural taxes in 2006 and many adjustments to extension, pricing, marketing systems, and infrastructure development. They also include experiments in expanding the scale of production and the supply chain through the creation of a range of collectives and cooperatives that Zhao seems to feel could work if only they were properly administered and "bottom-up" in origin. Constant experimentation in rural policies might be laudable from a theoretical perspective, but unquestionably results in instability as farmers must constantly adjust to new conditions.

Many of the policies adopted in the past twenty years have improved conditions for a large portion of China's farmers. Still, however, Zhou believes these efforts might prove insufficient for rural social stability as the plight of the poor and the promotion of self-governance remain beyond the purview of agricultural planners. Further, only by ever-increasing direct and indirect subsidies (for modernization, infrastructure, and extension) from Beijing can the farm sector continue to meet the high goal of 95 percent sufficiency (excepting soybeans). Beyond the great cost to the state, there are many other social and economic problems challenging rural China and those responsible for policy formulation and implementation. For Zhao, land reform lies at the heart of addressing many of these issues.

Zhao persuasively provides numerous examples to show the playing field is not a level one, and how current policies and programs exacerbate many rural problems. As the HRS breaks down, the poorest farmers are often the most vulnerable. Despite formal laws to the contrary, in countless locations across China, arable land once contracted to farmers is frequently taken to fuel urban expansions, ambitious infrastructure projects, and industrial estates, leaving affected families to exist on less land, work marginal land, or put off the land entirely. Researchers in many areas of China arrive in villages to find most working-age men and women absent for much of the year. Increasingly farming activities are carried out by older family members and children. Local solutions to the small scale of farms and the declining labor force include legal and illegal land transfers, farmers contracting out their labor to larger farmers, and informal agreements among individual farm families that allow consolidation of plots. Aggregation of land in this chaotic method allows some farm families to increase scale and increase incomes, but leaves others with declining incomes and little access to the means of production. The emergence of "haves" and "have nots," not just regionally, but increasingly in each and every village in rural China, has fomented protest and frustration. For Zhao, it is glaringly apparent that the local solutions that are currently evolving might solve the "disconnects" among land, labor, and capital access and use in the short run, but ultimately contribute to rural inequality. Systematic reform is needed, but for Zhao local input on how to reform the system is required and each location must ultimately decide on its own how to reform the system. He typically argues against the creation of specialized large-scale farms, especially as they exacerbate poverty in many instances, but is also critical of the crop and technology cooperatives organized by the government as alternatives in many locations. On the other hand, in a case study of a "commune" village in Nanlang Township of Zhongshan City in Guangdong Province, he reports significant prosperity and equity that he credits to the fact that communal management of land was never relinquished in the reform era. Are communes and co-ops good or bad? The answer seems to be both—under the "right" conditions. Solutions for Zhao are local, but is this really possible in contemporary China?

Although Zhao believes that the HRS might remain at the core of China's rural land management for some time, it is slowly and steadily being eroded in pragmatic if misguided decisions one plot at a time. In this opinion, he

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is not alone. Many rural development scholars and government officials in China also agree that the current system contributes to long-term land degradation, food security concerns, and social inequality. The best path forward remains unclear, however. The serious contradictions inherent in the current system are well developed in several chapters. Yes, governments must alter policies, but these governments must also monitor land use change and transactions to assure equity. Can the central or provincial governments effectively monitor compliance and equity if all solutions are local? For readers, it is not clear, even in a perfect world, how Zhao would promote local reform.

Although somewhat of a sidebar to the overall themes of the book, the difficulty that Zhou faced in collecting systematic data and interviews is a topic that he addresses with admirable honestly and clarity. Primary data collection of both qualitative and quantitative data on land use, land rights, and policies for allocation and redistribution is essential for any successful comprehensive solution to the interlocking problems of land reform, social equity, local governance, and the rights of farming and herding families. The reluctance of many of Zhao's potential informants to speak "on the record" and participate in systematic data collection speaks volumes about the controversial nature of the issue and ongoing efforts to reform the current system. It is difficult to imagine any effective long-term resolution of the problem if such data cannot be collected.

Yongjun Zhao makes an important contribution to a growing English-language literature on land reform in China. Readers will come away with a much clearer understanding of the complexity of the issue and why land reform cannot be viewed simply as a means of creating new institutions or laws directed at modernizing agriculture.

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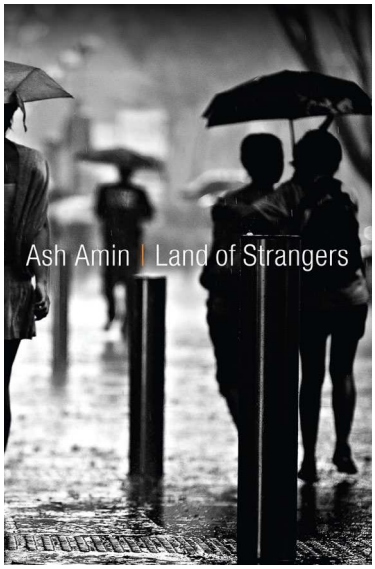
Land of Strangers

Ash Amin. Cambridge, MA: Polity Press, 2012. viii and 205 pp., bibliography, index. $64.95 cloth (ISBN 9780745652177); $22.95 e-book (ISBN 9780745652184).



Reviewed by Katharyne Mitchell, Department of Geography, University of Washington, Seattle, WA.

In the context of the constant mixing and unmixing of empires, how do we achieve peaceful coexistence? This book is the latest in a long and impressive list of works by both philosophers and practitioners engaging with this theme. In *Land of Strangers*, Amin focuses in particular on the contemporary moment and on Western societies, arguing that we are in a particularly dangerous period vis-à-vis the engagement with human difference. Current fears about disasters yet to come have been hyped and parlayed to the extent that the expectation of and planning around future catastrophe has become a critical technology of rule. After 11 September 2001 and 7 July 2005, the culture of risk management, including the endless war on terror and the slightly more opaque war on immigrants, is the new normal for many Western societies. For those who are different by reason of immigration or marked bodies—the "stranger" in the language used here—this does not bode well.

Given this dire scenario, Amin asks what are the best approaches to help different kinds of people get along. Both conservative and liberal strategies to integrate or incorporate the stranger have been tried before, but they are all seen as problematic for a number of varying reasons. Thus new tactics are necessary to combat what Amin postulates as a growing aversion to difference. Amin offers a few in this book, drawing on contemporary social theory and relying heavily on notions of the encounter, material transactional exchanges, and affect, among other trendy nuggets in current intellectual thought. The book is explicitly interested in bridging the theory–practice divide, bringing an intellectual framework to normative policy questions, and attempting to sound a "real-world" note of caution to ideas that appear politically unworkable. The book thus takes a stance that Amin himself labels "a politics of the midfield" (p. 162), or in another rhetorically felicitous phrase, "a politics of reasonableness" (p. 170).

Amin begins with an important and robust rejection of the so-called communitarian turn, the look inward and backward to an imagined national past when values were shared and ties were warm and personal. He rightfully identifies the danger in this form of false nostalgia and equally forcefully advocates the positive impact of cultural mixing and hybridity. With the twin goals of rebuffing the rightist narrative of community—with assimilation or expulsion of the stranger the inevitable outcome—as well as heralding heterogeneity and peaceful coexistence, Amin then begins the more difficult task of theorizing the how of this vis-à-vis both ideology and praxis.

Land of Strangers attempts to chart a path between what Amin labels as singularity and pluralism, through a focus on the space of "the gap." He seeks to find a theoretically richer and more politically pragmatic space between that of enforced recognition and interpersonal connection—a "sociology of ties"—and cosmopolitan pluralism. Rather than the more familiar critique of cosmopolitanism as cold and distant, however, the concept is problematized on the basis of its perceived reliance on "a subjectivity of

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human recognition and care" (p. 16). Here Amin brings in his larger point that it is not just human attachments that we must study, but also the nonhuman. With its emphasis on human recognition, cosmopolitanism, like communitarianism, is seen as limited by being too narrowly focused on human relations and "considerations of interpersonal obligation and civic orientation" (p. 16).

With the rejection of both of these ideologies, Amin begins to expand and defend his call for a politics of encounter and care that does not rely on interpersonal human engagement. He proposes instead "a scheme of social belonging and civic interest freed from the obligation of recognition among strangers" (p. 13). In other sections of the book this is rendered as a "civility of indifference to difference." His main point is the necessity to move away from enforced social unity and the demand for greater interpersonal and civic ties, which have become ubiquitous in some policy circles; this move, however, should not occur through a wayward jump into a long-distance politics of care still framed within the same narrow humanistic vision. Amin looks instead to the importance of situated practices involving complex material transactional exchanges.

The book thus stresses the importance of the nonhuman in any type of encounter. The nonhuman is not specifically defined, but seems to include objects, transactions, physical environments, affect, atmosphere, and other material entities. Although somewhat vague, this emphasis is the most innovative aspect of the book, as it allows Amin to flesh out what might otherwise devolve into strangers in third space, with an abstracted and ultimately hollow rendition of a space of harmonious coexistence (the gap) that is never actually located or locatable. Instead, Amin's geographical leanings encourage a focus on situated practices, where many kinds of tangible and intangible things flow together to create the site and all-important framing of the encounter: These can include the domestic household and the objects within, the urban setting and its affective projections, the collaborative workplace, and joint struggles for the public commons, all of which Amin identifies and explores in different chapters of the book.

In interrogating these forms of comingling, he returns to his earlier interests in the nature of affect, arguing for the importance of thinking about interactions as more than just copresence or proximity in space. For Amin, feelings and mood can exceed the immediacies of place or the friction of bodies. Thus to really understand the nature of the encounter in a holistic way, it is necessary to think about social habits and global connections, the "whole ecology of a public space, including its built form, aesthetic and symbolic feel, sensory resonances, and technological material organization" (p. 60). All of these types of entities flow into the moment and impact the ways in which people act, deliberate, and respond to each other. Moreover, many of these interactions are affected by previous forms of interactions and attachments, thus providing a layering through time that infuses both things and people with certain kinds of memories, habits, and emotions.

The most extreme and distressing example of this argument in the book comes through in the chapter on racism entitled "Remainders of Race." Amin argues here that the persistence of race reflects the historical sedimentation of hundreds of years of (racist) attachments based on imperialist systems of classification, racial hierarchies, and social differentiation that makes racial practice an "everyday doing"; indeed, these practices are so deeply layered into bodily responses that they are unconscious or precognitive, a phenotypical form of racism that seems to occur without motivation or thought. Its durability "lies in the constancy of sensing human difference as racial hierarchy, in the mapping of historical practices of racialization on the human compulsion to categorize" (p. 95).

There are many possible critiques that could be offered here, from the naturalizing assumption of a human compulsion to categorize, to the anti-intentionalist slant of this form of theorizing, which separates the mind from the body and renders passive those caught in these noxious layers of meaning, to the empirical questions raised by work such as that of Aihwa Ong, who has shown the "whitening" and "blackening" effects of money on racial practices and dispositions associated with Asian immigrants in the San Francisco Bay Area. The key question this chapter raises for me, though, is the question of change, the politics of change, which, despite the professed intentions of the author, seems to dissipate alongside the ontologization of politics notable throughout the book.

This question of the politics of change flags both the strengths of the book (openness to theory, desire to impact policy, empathy for the stranger) and its weaknesses (lack of a radical democratic vision and theory of change). Although the figure of the stranger in the book is that of the immigrant and the racial minority in the West, it could just as easily have been the Irish, Italian, or Jew at the turn of the last century in the United States, or the homosexual in much more recent years. How did these strangers become us? Taking the issue of homosexuality and same-sex marriage as a counterexample to the problem of the reputedly layered and materially saturated forms of aversion put forward by Amin, one could argue

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that for gays and lesbians in the United States, aversion has transformed into affinity in less than a generation. Polls across the United States and indeed across many countries in Europe show rising support for legally recognizing same-sex marriage, and laws enabling it have been passed in fifteen countries as of 2013. This level of acceptance and empathy was absolutely unthinkable even two decades ago. How did this change happen? Unfortunately, Amin's unwillingness to grapple directly with questions of power, hegemony, and agency means that the theories and ideas developed in this book will not help provide an answer.

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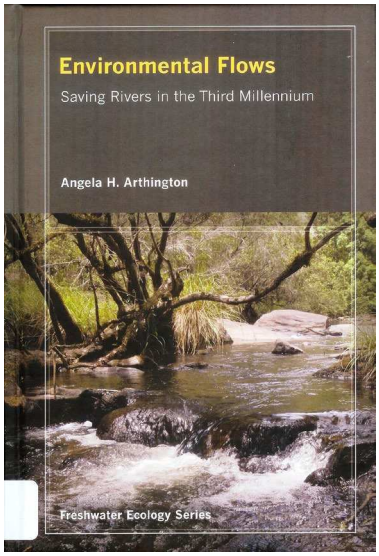
Environmental Flows: Saving Rivers in the Third Millennium

Angela H. Arthington. Berkeley, CA: University of California Press, 2012. xii and 424 pp., preface, appendix, references, index. $75.00 cloth (ISBN 978-0-520-27369-6).

Reviewed by Francis J. Magilligan, Department of Geography, Dartmouth College, Hanover, NH.



Dams have a ubiquitous global presence. According to the International Commission on Large Dams (ICOLD), there are more than 45,000 large dams scattered around the world. In the United States, the Army Corps of Engineers documents more than 83,000 dams, ranging in size and function from small, run-of-river industrial mill dams to large multiple-purpose dams such as the Glen Canyon Dam on the Colorado River. Whether large or small, these dams individually or collectively serve to fragment watersheds, often leading to significant hydrologic, geomorphic, or ecological impacts. To help combat and mitigate the environmental effects of these structures, hydrologists, engineers, geomorphologists, and ecologists have proposed a full suite of solutions ranging from hard engineering approaches, like fish ladders, to the outright removal of dams. Similarly, as part of greater efforts to restore river reaches and watersheds, many nongovernmental organizations (NGOs) and government agencies, both domestically and internationally, have advocated for the employment of environmental flow releases to reestablish, as best as possible, natural flow regimes and help restore downstream in-channel and riparian ecological processes.

Research on environmental flows has been gathering intellectual and management momentum, but because of its cross-disciplinary theme, results have been scattered across multiple academic journals and within the less visible NGO and agency gray literature. The focus has been lacking a comprehensive synthesis across disciplines until now. In her broad-scoped book *Environmental Flows: Saving Rivers in the Third Millennium*, Angela H. Arthington brings her vast experience working on watershed issues in Australia and Africa to assembling an extremely thorough presentation of the scientific and historical background of the concept and ultimately to the range of restoration efforts that can be accomplished with environmental flow releases.

The book begins with several background chapters on drainage basin processes and hydrologic principles. The goal of these early chapters is primarily to establish a common vocabulary and to highlight the type, magnitude, and global dimensions of hydrologic alterations that have occurred due to flow regulation. What is attractive about Arthington's approach is that it documents and details the extent of environmental damage resulting from flow regulation, but does it in a very restrained manner, lacking the hysteria common to many books about human impacts on water resources (e.g., "water wars"). In many ways, Arthington does not need to add this element, as her compilation from the literature chronicling the extent of ecological change speaks for itself. Moreover, she elegantly introduces some of the major paradigms in watershed science, such as the river continuum concept, the flood pulse concept, and the natural flow regime, in a way that is both theoretically rich and well grounded

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with examples. Throughout these introductory chapters, Arthington maintains her focus on presenting the array of ecological changes within the context of ultimately establishing a management baseline in determining a very basic, yet extremely difficult, question:How much water does a river need?

The answer to this fundamental question remains scientifically perplexing, but even if known, it also requires a toolkit and framework to achieve—which is the predominant theme of the remainder of the book. In an approach that is historical—without being overly chronological—Arthington lays out the trajectory of hydrologic and ecological approaches for measuring the impacts of flow regulation. These techniques not only document the magnitude and type of hydroecological shifts, but they also serve as potential monitoring tools. As the title of the book indicates, one of the commonly advocated tools for restoring watershed ecological functioning is "environmental lows," controlled releases from dams to achieve, or least to best approximate, the natural flow regime. As she presents, what sounds so simple is in fact quite difficult, as different parts of the hydrograph (peak flow, flow duration, timing of high and low flows, etc.) could serve very different ecological purposes and functions. For some environmental flow prescriptions, habitat restoration might be the goal, and in other instances, it might be hydraulic parameters. The middle chapters thus serve to educate the reader about the nuts and bolts of multiple flow models (IFIM, PHABSIM, etc.), but also to present the strengths, weakness, and limitation of these approaches. Arthington is well aware that environmental flow approaches have been criticized by some scientists and management agencies, as they focus solely on flow strategies for restoration, excluding other factors (e.g., urbanization, water quality, land use and land cover change, etc.) that influence in-channel and riparian ecological integrity. Although she might emphasize environmental flow prescriptions, throughout the book she realizes its limits, and she also contextualizes this approach within a greater adaptive management arena such that environmental flows represent one of the best ways to learn by doing, as, for example, the controlled releases below Glen Canyon Dam on the Colorado River.

The final chapters address the legislative, policy, and management strategies inherent in the application of environmental flows. This section truly reveals Arthington's vast experiences as a practitioner and her international participation in multiple panels, committees, and watershed institutes. She is well aware of the pitfalls in the implementation and monitoring of environmental flows, and she presents the necessary architecture of stakeholder involvement and policy framework for successful implementation. She has a great grasp of water law and the existing international agreements, and these final chapters provide the necessary socioeconomic context for river restoration writ large, but especially in the application of environmental flows.

This is an extremely thorough book written with grace and clarity. Arthington presents complicated material with ease, and even readers lacking rigorous training in either hydrology or ecology will still be able to follow its detail and structure. It is pitched at the perfect level such that an undergraduate or layperson can follow it easily, yet simultaneously advanced enough that a graduate student or practitioner can appreciate its rigor. This book will probably not supplant a traditional book for a course in fluvial geomorphology or introductory hydrology, but one can certainly develop a course around its content.

The coverage is indeed global, and Arthington uses examples from all over the world. This global coverage is equally present in her extensive bibliography; she has, of course, cited the classics in this evolving field, but she has done an exhaustive literature search both topically and regionally such that most major watersheds are covered in her analysis or bibliography. Some topics, however, are given less exhaustive coverage, and I think some of them, like her inclusion of groundwater protection and estuarine protection, seemed like they should have either been covered more intensively or not included, as they seem to distract more than enlighten. This is especially true of the chapter on climate change. It is difficult not to include climate change when discussing future scenarios of watershed protection, but its coverage and reflection is less thorough and comprehensive relative to the main theme of the book.

Despite these extremely minor shortcomings, this is a truly important book that should be read by geographers, hydrologists, ecologists, and anyone studying river restoration. More important, any policymaker dealing with watershed protection should read it. Although it deals mainly with flow regulation by dams, its comprehensive perspective on watershed management provides an important framework for all facets of watershed health, from the habitat scale to the catchment scale. Somebody needed to write this book, and luckily Angela H. Arthington has given the hydrologic and ecological communities the broad-scoped and reflective compilation that has been lacking.

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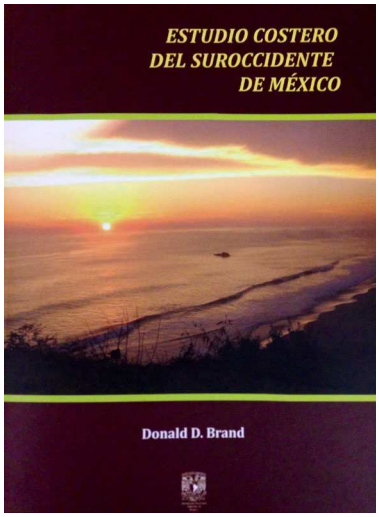
Estudio Costero del Suroccidente de México

Donald D. Brand. Morelia, Mexico: CIGA/UNAM, 2013. 262 pp., preface, introduction, figures, illustrations, bibliography. MX$200 paper (ISBN 978-607-02-4149-9).

Reviewed by Matthew C. LaFevor, Department of Geography and the Environment, University of Texas at Austin, Austin, TX.



Donald D. Brand's *Estudio Costero del Suroccidente de México* (A Study of the Southwest Mexican Coast) is a highly detailed account of the Pacific coast of the state of Michoacán during the 1950s. El Centro de Investigaciones en Geografía Ambiental (CIGA; UNAM Morelia campus) recently published the work in Spanish, some fifty years after Brand and his collaborators compiled it. The Spanish translation is easily readable by those proficient in the language, although dictionaries of geomorphological and historical nautical terms might be helpful.

Posthumous publications often spark the interest of readers for several reasons. For some readers, a new publication of historical material serves to deepen an understanding of a particular topic or to open new lines of inquiry. Posthumous publications might also yield fresh insight into the authors themselves, sparking new rounds of discussions about their work. For many, though, with perhaps less interest in the topical focus, a posthumous publication might instead serve to illuminate the scholarly zeitgeist of a particular era: Why were researchers interested in these topics? How did they go about collecting and analyzing data? How has the spirit of geographical inquiry changed since that time? This volume prompts these questions and more. This book is about the coastal geomorphology of the state of Michoacán, Mexico during the mid-twentieth century. More important, it deepens our understanding of the history of geographical inquiry during that time period.

Gerardo Bocco Verdinelli's preface and Pedro Urquijo Torres's introduction provide succinct and informative backgrounds that are key to understanding the historical context of Brand's work. Both focus on Brand's role as protégé of Carl Sauer and advocate of the Berkeley traditions of cultural and historical geography in Mexico. Urquijo's introductory essay places Brand in the larger purview of the Berkeley School, along with Brand's contemporaries, Dan Stanislawski and Robert West. CIGA recently translated Stanislawski's *The Anatomy of Eleven Towns in Michoacán* ([1950] 2007) into Spanish, and the College of Michoacán is in the process of translating West's (1948) *The Cultural Geography of the Modern Tarascan Area*. Appropriately, publication of Brand's *Estudio Costero* completes the trio of works by these three students of Sauer and the Berkeley tradition. Together, through their detailed descriptions of the human and environmental geography of the time, they are among the most revealing studies of mid-twentieth-century Michoacán.

In the book's preface, Brand traces his interest in the region to 1939 when a Mexican colleague described to him a little-known terrain along the Michoacán coast. Brand began to scan the literature and look for maps of the region, but was not able to visit it until 1950. Once in the field, he realized that existing maps were "consistently vague, contradictory, and erroneous concerning most of the details (both physical and cultural) of the Michoacán coast" (p. 25). As a result, he organized a research program through the University of Texas at Austin, where he was a professor in (and founder of) the Department of Geography. By the mid-1950s he and senior assistant and doctoral candidate Pablo Guzmán Rivas began

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conducting field work along the Michoacán coast, and by 1958 Brand had compiled their findings.

In the first section of *Estudio Costero,* Brand outlines the social, political, historical, and environmental aspects of the region. This is followed by an explanation of the formation of the beach cusps so prevalent along the shoreline, by Guzmán Rivas. Based on extensive field observations and profile sketches, Brand concludes that the coastal landforms result primarily from wave action, but are more a product of nonerosion than of sand deposition. He then transitions into a statistical analysis and discussion of data from some rainfall stations both along the coast and inland, but concludes there were insufficient data to notice any longer term trends. Only data collected from Acapulco enabled the author to infer that coastal precipitation generally had decreased from 1939 until 1954.

The next section is a detailed accounting of the history of maritime exploration and surveying of the Michoacán coast. Brand begins with Balboa and the "discovery" of the Pacific Ocean in 1513, follows through the conquest and the colonial eras, and ends with the first couple of decades of the twentieth century. It is difficult to identify any central question or thread of inquiry among the exhaustive lists of naval explorations and histories of coastal surveys. Brand instead focuses on identifying sources and in compiling reference lists; he does little to explicate or analyze them, individually or as a whole. For historians or historical geographers, the bibliographic lists might facilitate research, and the references will likely prove useful for scholars of naval history. For others, this section of *Estudio Costero* will read like a catalogue of dates and events far removed from any currently relevant historiography of Mexico.

Perhaps the most enlightening part of the book is the final twenty-nine pages—map sketches, diagrams, and fourteen aerial photographs of the Michoacán coastline (pp. 233–62). The images depict coastal landmarks, rivers and deltas, beaches, lighthouses, and other promontories of general interest to Brand and his assistants. The black-and-white images in Brand's original manuscript reveal much about land use and land cover, floodplain cultivation, and river channel and coastal geomorphology. Landscape features are considerably less visible in this volume, however, due in part to the low contrast of the reproductions.

In his excellent introduction to the book, Urquijo Torres mentions that Brand and his collaborators finally opted to publish two documents from their work. Yet for unexplained reasons, the second volume was omitted from this latest Spanish version. The second volume contains more than 550 pages of additional material. Brand named the first volume the *Technical Report* and this second volume the *Final Report,* and wished the two reports to be used together as complements to each other (Brand 1958). According to Brand, the first volume contains the historical and bibliographic materials to which the second volume refers and discusses in more detail. Additionally, the second volume contains Guzmán Rivas's review of known seismic activity in the area, along with a summary of the impacts of the 1932 tsunami and a synthesis of the known cyclonic trajectories of coastal weather systems. Brand also provides a forty-three-page summary of all the project's findings, based on four seasons of field work and extensive archival research. He summarizes the project's findings on the geology, hydrography, weather and climate, difficulties and dangers (hazards), as well as issues over communication and accessibility of the region.

Highlights of the second volume include (1) twenty original sketch maps, (2) nine reproductions of historical maps, and (3) 340 excellently reproduced black-and-white photographs of the Michoacán coast. In addition to the coastal landforms and river geomorphology of the first volume, these additional images also depict elements of material culture—traditional building structures, subsistence patterns, biota of the region, and agricultural practices. Informative captions accompany each photograph, revealing fascinating colloquial phrases and vocabularies of the region (Brand 1958). These photographs would serve as excellent visual references for studies of land use and land cover change using repeat photography, such as those based on the photographic archives of Brand's contemporary, Robert West (see Bass 2004).

Let us hope CIGA also publishes the second volume, to be read with the first, as Brand originally intended (Brand 1958, p. i); together, the two volumes yield a more complete and useful study. This new publication of Brand's work on the Michoacán coast will form an essential part of the environmental historiography of one of México's most geographically diverse regions.

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REVIEW ESSAY

The Continuing Quest to Understand Carl Sauer

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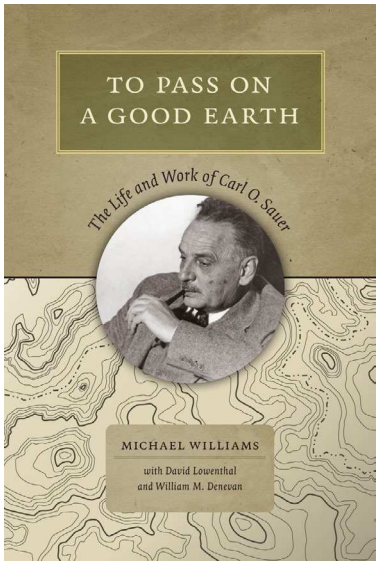
To Pass on a Good Earth: The Life and Work of Carl O. Sauer. Michael Williams, with David Lowenthal and William M. Denevan. Charlottesville: University of Virginia Press, 2014. xviii and 256 pp., illustrations, notes, bibliography, index. $45.00 cloth (ISBN 978-0-8139-3566-9); $45.00 electronic (ISBN 978-0-8139-3577-5).

Reviewed by Daniel W. Gade, Department of Geography, University of Vermont, Burlington, VT.



Almost four decades after his death, Carl Sauer continues to be lauded as an intellectual beacon, his published corpus resuscitated, and those who had been his PhD students inspected for his mentoring influence. Five books and close to 600 published commentaries elsewhere about Sauer overshadow the scholarly concentration given to any other twentieth-century geographer. He was and remains a compelling figure whose idiosyncratic thinking accounted for part of this extraordinary attention. Collateral benefits of reading about Sauer's trajectory extend to how the discipline of geography in the first half of the twentieth century struggled to find its niche. Examination of his life also provides insight into the way many U.S. universities permutated into research institutions. The book under scrutiny in this essay explicitly deals with his long life, but, as in most biographies, it also sheds light on the time in which he lived. A partisan of the Sauerian school of thought, I have nevertheless sought to slash through the hagiographic haze to examine their subject with a cold eye.

Beyond its biographical theme, the *petite histoire* of this book calls for introductory comment. The production process became protracted when the first author, Michael Williams of Oxford University, died in 2009 and left a long, unvetted manuscript with many loose ends. David Lowenthal agreed to take over the task of getting the work into shape for publication and William Denevan subsequently contributed to its final phase. As graduate students at Berkeley, Lowenthal and Denevan knew Sauer, whereas Williams himself, although he had worked on Sauer's ideas since the early 1980s, never met the maestro. Beyond completing the book, the accomplished triad might well have had a synergistic effect on the end product. Williams had assiduously tilled the favorite Sauerian theme of human role in changing the face of the earth; Lowenthal (2000) is the peerless biographer of George Perkins Marsh and his introduction to Marsh came from Sauer himself; and consummate field geographer Denevan has had a well-seasoned perspective on Sauer and on the Latin America of the past (Denevan and Mathewson 2009). Beyond the author list, the project received valuable assistance from Eleanore Williams, who translated 160 Sauer family letters written in German, and Mary Alice Lamberty Lowenthal, who contributed her formidable bibliographical and editorial talents. A half-dozen other people donated time and talent to this book to make it truly a participatory project.

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Unpublished correspondence that Sauer either wrote or received provided the major source of information for this work. One file was the Sauer papers at the Bancroft Library in Berkeley, which have engaged a string of researchers over the past three decades. In addition, Sauer's descendants graciously permitted access to family letters, his boyhood diary, photographs, and personal reminiscences spanning a life that started in the horse-and-buggy era and ended in the jet age. Still other previously unused sources of information became available, which, judiciously assembled, have disclosed new details, if not necessarily a new perspective, of his life and thought. The first three of the book's twelve chapters move chronologically through Sauer's childhood and adolescence in a small town west of St. Louis; his attendance at the early age of sixteen at the local college, now defunct; graduate work at two universities in metropolitan Chicago; and teaching appointments in the Northeast and Midwest before he departed in 1923 for the Golden West, where he lived for the rest of his life. More than two thirds of the book is on Professor Sauer of Berkeley, where he spread his wings as mentor, teacher, researcher, and assessor for research foundations.

Mining family correspondence turned up many revealing details. Living in Chicago and hating it, uncertain of his true vocation, Sauer opined in one letter home that he was thinking of quitting his graduate program to work as a journalist at a small-town newspaper. By then he had become sure of his skill as a writer, a realization that some geographers never achieve. In my view, his desire to write and later concern for the care of the earth contain a subliminal meaning. Uprooted from the religiosity of his youth, Sauer transplanted a need for redemption into noble commitments of the secular self. The study of nature and of the human past substituted for religion as primordial experiences of the spirit. The authors chose not to plumb the psychogenic depths of their subject, which, if they had, might have added another level of insight to the book.

Two years of schooling between age nine and eleven in southwestern Germany, a Protestant region where his father was born, might have been more significant in explaining facets of Sauer's personality than the book portrays. Even in the secular Europe of today, Baden-Württemberg is sometimes depicted as having a pietistic psychological landscape. As an adult, he lived through the two world wars, which even as a civilian had a traumatic effect on him. More than most U.S. geographers of his time, he was caught between two cultures. Sauer's thinking about ethnicity reached a high point of tension soon after he arrived in Ann Arbor in 1916 to take up his University of Michigan professorship. As the drumbeat for U.S. involvement in the European war increased, an anti-German group of professors targeted the twenty-seven-year-old Sauer for alleged, but unproven, sympathies for the Kaiser. The presumption of disloyalty vexed Sauer, no political activist, but the issue went beyond advocacy to ethnic affiliation or cultural affinity. On either of those grounds the university relieved most of its professors of German of their duties. Sauer's partialities for German scholarship and the German model of the research university were clear, but the book's lack of a larger context on this matter reduces a reader's grasp of the issues or consequences.

Founded in 1810 by Wilhelm von Humboldt, the University of Berlin incorporated for the first time in the Western world, research and teaching. Prestige of that experiment led to the subsequent founding of the Johns Hopkins University and to the transformation of Harvard, Yale, Cornell, Michigan, Wisconsin, Illinois, and California–Berkeley. These and several other U.S. universities redefined their mission as one embodying both the transmission and creation of knowledge. By comparison, British universities lagged in making that commitment. Whereas Yale University awarded its first PhD in 1861, Oxford University did not catch on to the idea of earned doctorates until more than a half-century later. Moreover, a British emphasis on practical application of knowledge differed from the German devotion to unencumbered research. Set in his views, Sauer never hired a British geographer, whom he stereotyped in a letter to Isaiah Bowman not mentioned in the book as "The chipper little [English] schoolmasters who from time to time demonstrate their teaching cleverness in this country, are out" (Dunbar 1981, 8). Not surprisingly, Sauer's cultural historical project inspired few from those shores, with the notable exceptions of David Harris, Robin Donkin, George Lovell, and Michael Williams himself. Miscomprehension among British geographers of Sauer's thought, so much beyond their experience, has accounted for the many errors of fact and interpretation about the man and his ideas, voiced especially by the "new" cultural geographers. Sauer, unjustly stigmatized around the time of World War I, did some stereotyping of his own after that in hiring and admissions decisions.

Sauer's research and writing, rather than his classroom or graduate training, dominate the book's narrative. Williams interprets Sauer's (1925) *The Morphology of Landscape* as an antideterminist manifesto, but careful reading indicates it was also a statement of Sauer's *Bilding,* the

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self-formation of German high culture, a matter undeveloped in this book. In another omission, the pages on the Michigan Land Economic Survey do not elaborate Sauer's disillusionment with his participation in it, which accounted for the 180-degree change in his research program when he got to California (Gade 2012, 340–41). Sauer considered his association with that survey to have been during his "wasted years" before he found his authentic research direction. His discontent at Michigan had a deep philosophical underpinning that involvement in the Survey brought to the surface. The bureaucracy and formulaic thinking forced an existential realization that an individual is sovereign over all values in his or her life. Implementation of that authority of the self required blazing his own trail and that meant leaving Ann Arbor. The height of his enthusiasm for exotic field work occurred in that first decade at Berkeley. Northwestern Mexico enchanted Sauer, then still in his roughing-it mode, as a preindustrial land. He engaged in conversations with poor farmers at a time when scholars gathered evidence about peasants by talking with the elite about them. When he went to South America in 1942 on a fact-finding mission for the Rockefeller Foundation, coat-and-tie and chauffeured car had replaced muddy boots and mule. Starting in the mid-1930s, archival work complemented his field work and then gradually replaced it. Sauer is often considered to have been primarily a Latin Americanist, but between 1931 and 1966, only one fifth of his publications were on places south of the border and none after that.

Beginning in the 1930s and for the next three decades, Sauer's attention became riveted on the remote past. Among the themes plowed in that period was the origin of cultivated plants and animals as living witnesses of an ancient manipulation of wild biota (Sauer 1952). More than instruments of human sustenance, domesticated organisms were symbols of the Eternal Now disclosing the Eternal Then. He also devoted much energy to the temporal conundrum of human arrival in the Western Hemisphere, followed later by a huge leap back in time to the australopithecines (Sauer 1944, 1962). Sauer proposed the seashore, not the savanna, as the key ecological setting in hominid evolution. In each of the three preceding forays into prehistory, his interpretations of the archaeological record gave rise to speculative arguments providing alternative perspectives to ponder. One senses that the "Ur principle" that moves organic life forward from its alpha point exerted on him a hypnotic force. Calling forth the archaic power of beginnings was a way to comprehend the past in the present. Sauer's relationship to the archaic bears close alignment to the philosophy of J. G. Fichte, but without any evidence that he ever had read Fichte.

As an afterword, Lowenthal provides a penetrating perspective on how antimodern Sauer was in his lifetime a *vox clamantis in deserto,* only to be later acknowledged for the inconvenient truths he proclaimed. Many thoughtful assessments of his work and life grace this book, except perhaps those that are most important: Sauer's philosophical configuration and the lionization he received, especially after his death. Crucial to understanding Sauer was his intrinsically romantic temperament. As a protean word, *romantic* in this denotation has nothing to do with an antirational mode of thought or lack of practical realism, which, unfortunately, is how in two instances the authors used the term. Rather it refers to a complex of counter-Enlightenment biases that elucidates almost everything about Sauer. His opposition to the idea of progress and the bureaucratization of the university, as well as his nostalgia for a rural past, are all part of a piece. Sauer's rejection of Marxism, neoclassical economics, and cultural materialism, which are based on a basic reductionist premise imposing uniformities of structure on human life and culture, was an element of that same mental configuration. Likewise, much of Sauer's research reflected the strong anti-utilitarian bias that has always marked romantic sensibility. So much else reported in this volume falls into place if only the authors had looked at it in terms of Sauer's romantic sensibility.

In Sauer's way of thinking, there is no structure of things, no universal rules, and no pattern to which one must adapt, thus accounting for his refusal to promote divisions of knowledge or to engage in epistemological debate about the boundaries of geography. Like all romantics, he had a historicist perspective and a strong conviction that we cannot really look forward without looking back. Sauer opposed any canonic approach to method or technique, considering them to be iron cages constraining his imagination. His idealization of diversity and the notion of pluralistic worlds, his exaltation of the local and contingent, and his interest in the uniqueness and individuality of objects in their concrete totality were all part of his romantic consciousness. The intuitive, the continuous, the organic, the disordered, and the traditional defined who Sauer was. The script Sauer lived by had been woven from the threads of thought spun out especially in the late eighteenth century by the likes of Johann Wolfgang von Goethe and Fichte. Romanticism was a philosophy of life for Sauer that, however, he never articulated in print or in any conversation I had with him.

The romantic imagination permeated everything about him. Clues and cues to a larger intellective archetype abound in every piece of Sauer's writings. For example,

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once it is appreciated that the romantic scholar uses the past to explain the present, Sauer's (1941) article on the personality of Mexico becomes instantly clarified. In it, he essentially transformed a critique of the pre-Columbian heritage of that country into an explanation of that land as a persistent duality between the north and the south. In a further example, when it is acknowledged that romantics view the sacred as the key to understanding culture, Sauer's enthusiasm for Eduard Hahn (1856–1928) becomes more comprehensible. Hahn (1896) believed that religion, not economic necessity, triggered the domestication of herd animals. In a related perspective, Sauer never referred to his philosophical idealism either. Yet to Sauer, as to Immanuel Kant, it was the individual mind that imposed meaning on the world. Once that position is recognized, both his rejection of positivism and his aversion to team research suddenly become illuminated. When all stitched together, Sauer's books, articles, antimodernist pronouncements, letters, and lectures form a remarkably coherent constellation of thought driven by a counter-Enlightenment perspective. Just about everything attributed to the Enlightenment, including the intellectualism and forced abstraction, suited him not at all. If Sauer is grasped at that level of understanding, his scholarship, personality, quirks, and life decisions become apprehendable, construable, and explainable. Yet his own metaphysical reticence took its toll on understanding the ontological roots of the cultural-historical project he espoused. Although many of his PhD students were in the same mold, they were not inclined to move into that territory of the mind and heart. Instead, they confined themselves to what they were trained: Think about the earth and its diversity. Is not that what geographers do?

A second major unexamined point is why Sauer has received such extraordinary attention as a seminal intellectual figure. Although he was a gifted writer, the inspiration he radiated to others might not have come primarily from his published work. Quite a few other geographers have been more prolific and received many more citations. About half of his publications have scarcely been cited at all. Several of his monographs were published inhouse without the rigor of outside review. Among them was *The Morphology of Landscape* (Sauer 1925), dashed off in a couple of weeks as a prolegomenon, but never followed up with an empirical study. Other works were sometimes not well received: Geologist Kirk Bryan at Harvard took issue with Sauer's geomorphology; maize scientist Paul Mangelsdorf chided Sauer for his counterintuitive comments on diffusion; and a professional historian even questioned Sauer's competence as a scholar of the past in the pages of no less than the *Geographical Review*. His grand synthesis on prehistory, *Agricultural Origins and Dispersals* (Sauer 1952), so fresh and original when first published, has not stood the test of time.

More compelling than the printed word has been Sauer's charisma, defined here in the Weberian sense of someone possessed of an innate exceptional quality. Lowenthal makes use of that piquant word in his foreword, but does not develop its implications. Geographers wanted, even needed, an *Übermensch* who towered over the profession. Sauer fit the bill: a certified practitioner with a PhD in the discipline to be sure, but also one who was widely read, multilingual, and able to communicate on a par with notables in other fields. A brilliant synthesizer of bodies of knowledge, his thoughts were full of prophetic overtones. The semisatirical label "Great God West of the Sierras"—Richard Hartshorne's clever taunt of Sauer as viewed from the Midwest—ironically resonated among others as appropriate deference to someone above the fray of Hartshorne's pedantic harping. In his fifties, Sauer knew most geographers in the United States and many in Europe and had acquired a good deal of symbolic capital from networks that extended to funding agencies. Sauer's own PhD students, together with others in and out of Berkeley who identified with his approach to the field, formed his cheerleading squad. In that regard, part of the quasi-veneration of Sauer must be understood in terms of those who have written about him. Sauer's biggest promoters have been geographers and others who have elevated an exemplar into a larger-than-life hero of the mind and heart. Hundreds of other geographers in the professoriate respected him as an intellectual authority of pure scholarly motive. To the discipline, Sauer brought a scholarly dimension centered around the exercise of intellectual curiosity and the creative imagination. More than any other single factor, the shortage of Carl Sauers has excluded geography programs in the elite private universities.

Information in the Williams, Lowenthal, and Denevan book, as well as other lines of evidence, point to Sauer himself as fostering the development of the great man syndrome around his persona. Undisputed king of his departmental fiefdom, his colleagues and graduate students accepted his often contrarian opinions as the sign of a luminary. Even when he was not right, people deemed him to be so, for charismatics by definition receive the gift of inward obedience from their acolytes. The inner certainty with which he expressed his thoughts came from the confidence imparted by his vast fund of knowledge and also the self-knowledge acquired through the process of self-formation. Nowhere in this book is that self-formative quest of *Bildung* evoked, which is what set

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Sauer's education and knowledge apart from any of his U.S. contemporaries. His dismissive judgments about the quality and direction of his fellow practitioners, as well as his rare appearances at geography meetings, conveyed a subtle message of his own intellectual superiority. With adulation, isolation, and exemplification, Sauer came to perceive himself as a sage.

The Berkeley campus at the time had two exemplars his senior from whom he learned how the cult of personality, centered around the notion of academic genius, accompanied the historical transformation of the state university into a research-centered institution that matched several much older eastern universities. Herbert Eugene Bolton (1870–1953), historian, director of the Bancroft Library, and mentor to large numbers of graduate students, gave Sauer the idea of studying the explorers by retracing their steps in the field. His friend and neighbor, anthropologist Alfred Kroeber (1876–1960), imparted to Sauer not just an interest in New World archaeology and native American demography, but also, like Bolton, a model of an experienced scholar with whom he could exchange ideas of mutual interest. Bolton, Kroeber, and Sauer were charismatic and romantic titans, notable for unselfconscious self-expression and less concerned with discovery than with creation. Bolton founded the California school of history, Kroeber became the major twentieth-century U.S. anthropologist, and Sauer fathered the so-called Berkeley School of Geography.

Although directly relevant, the discipleship around Sauer's approach to geography is only tangentially discussed. Its main ideas included the concept of culture, importance of origin and dispersal, and the mingling of physical phenomena and processes with the human imprint. Field work became idealized as the way these studies were best undertaken. Synthesis that led to a greater understanding of place, process or period was a primary aim. The study of causation was not a goal. Although the cultural-historical circle of affinity never dominated the discipline in the United States, it had a substantial impact in teaching and learning about the world. Intergenerational continuity of the specialty owed much to Sauer as an astute judge of scholarly potential of graduate students and on them as the same. Several academic departments, most notably Texas, Louisiana State, UCLA, Wisconsin, Chicago, and Oregon, became receptive to training graduate students in cultural-historical geography. Its heyday has now passed, however, even in those institutions. At Berkeley itself, where the Sauerian tradition gave the geography department an international profile and remains its greatest claim to fame, the cultural-historical circle was eventually dropped. That disclamatory decision disaffected dozens of geographers who had either fallen under the spell of Sauer's charisma and Bildung or simply honored him for his contributions to the discipline. Decline of this strand of geography reflects the constantly shifting ground of a sprawling discipline perpetually unsure of its conceptual core. Technicians, theoreticians, and (to use Sauer's term) do-gooders have come to dominate many geography programs through wholesale borrowing of intellectual trends from other fields and the applicability of geographic information systems. In the process, intellectual curiosity as primary motivation has receded and a focus on solving perceived problems has correspondingly gained ground. The Sauerian project, if it has a long-term future, might be as part of an interdisciplinary realm in environmental and landscape history.

Although Berkeley immensely suited Sauer as a campus on which to carry out his manifold scholarly activities, nostalgia for his Missouri roots stayed with him. His early years captured in the middle border article published in *Landscape* magazine (Sauer 1962) evoked his personal history as part of the second wave of settlers to the country's midsection south of the Great Lakes. Youthful memories of kith and kin in the seat of Warren County incorporated the notions of *Heimat* and *Gemeinschaft* as the ideal human setting. Missouri was also the focus of his doctoral dissertation and the location of some of the farmland that he continued to own and rent. When death came at age eighty-six in Berkeley, survivors had his remains transported 2,000 miles to Warrenton City Cemetery. Burial there symbolized his meaning of place as formed out of the past, one now gone forever.

Notwithstanding the book's major deficit on the broad picture, *To Pass on a Good Earth* is otherwise an excellent biography of U.S. geography's most illustrious figure. Felicitously written, the book humanizes its subject and recounts his multifaceted contributions without placing him on a pedestal. The authors, especially the late Michael Williams, deserve commendation for this important if flawed addition to the history of geography. Readers who like the book will be grateful to Sauer for his love of writing letters and to his family for the providential preservation of so much of that correspondence. The publisher conceptualized this biography as a short-order volume, perhaps as a way to cook up more readers. Elimination of so much material, however, diminishes its usefulness for a more comprehensive and probing discourse. In other words, it is a lunch that tastes as good as a four-course

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dinner, but it does not sate the appetite. This biography of Sauer is not Lowenthal's (2000) treatise on Marsh, in which every fact about him is richly contextualized to provide future harvests of new interpretation. Given the intellectual magnetism of his personality, the transcendental meanings he represents for the scholarly vocation of pure inquiry, and the philosophical complex that best describes him, still another book on the phenomenon that is Carl Ortwin Sauer can be conjectured.

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